

FRACTIONAL GAUSSIAN FIELDS ON THE VICSEK SET

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Chapter 1

We gotta start somewhere

In this thesis we will be studying the Vicsek set, so therefore we will in this section start by constructing the set and proving some basic properties of the Vicsek set. While it is possible to define the Vicsek set as a non-empty compact self-similar set, we will first define and prove some basic properties of self-similar sets.

1.1 Iterated Function System

The iterated functions systems (IFS) gives us a way to work with self-similarly sets. Another reason for constructing the IFS is that we are able to prove that the Vicsek set actually exists. Thus we start by defining the iterated function systems.

Definition 1.1: A finite family of functions $\{\mathcal{S}_1, \mathcal{S}_2, \dots, \mathcal{S}_m\}$ with $m \geq 2$ is called an *iterated function system* (or IFS) if exists $c_i \in (0, 1)$ such that all $\mathcal{S}_i$ are *contractions*. Which is exactly

$$|\mathcal{S}_i(x) - \mathcal{S}_i(y)| \leq c_i |x - y|.$$

Further we call a non-empty compact subset K of X an *invariant set* for the IFS if

$$K = \bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(K) \tag{1.1}$$

The next question will then be if there for every IFS exists an invariant set for the IFS? We shall prove that this is indeed true, but before we are able to prove that a unique invariant set exists we will need to define the Hausdorff metric.

Definition 1.2: Define $A_\delta = \{x \in \mathcal{A} : \exists a \in A, |x - a| < \delta\}$ The *Hausdorff metric* is given by

$$d_H(X, Y) = \inf \{\delta : X \subset Y_\delta \text{ and } Y \subset X_\delta\}$$

The proof that d_H metric can be found in [Hen99].

Theorem 1.3: Consider the IFS given by $\{\mathcal{S}_1, \mathcal{S}_2, \dots, \mathcal{S}_m\}$, then there is a unique invariante set K for the IFS.

Moreover, if we define a transformation S , on the class $\mathcal{A}$ of non-empty compact sets, by

$$S(E) = \bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(E), \quad \text{for } E \in \mathcal{A}$$

and write S^k to be the k 'th iterate of S , so $S^0 = E$ and $S^k(E) = S(S^{k-1}(E))$ for $k \geq 1$. Then

$$F = \bigcap_{i=0}^{\infty} S^i(E)$$

for every set $E \in \mathcal{A}$ such that $\mathcal{S}_i(E) \subset E$ for all i .

Proof. Let E be any set in $\mathcal{A}$ such that $S_i(E) \subset E$ for all i . By induction we find that $S^k(E) \subset S^{k-1}(E)$. Since $S^0 = E \supset S(E) = S^1(E)$, then $S^{k+1}(E) = S(S^k(E)) \subset S(S^{k-1}(E)) = S^k(E)$ by the induction assumption that $S^k \subset S^{k-1}$. So $S^k(E)$ is a decreasing sequence of non-empty compact sets, in which case it must have a non-empty compact intersection $K = \bigcap_{k \geq 0} S^k(E)$. Since $S^k(E)$ is decreasing, then $S(K) = K$ fulfilling (1.1).

Now moving on to uniqueness, We will need the following inequality

$$d_H(S(A), S(B)) = d_H\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(A), \bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(B)\right) \leq \max_{1 \leq i \leq m} d_H(\mathcal{S}_i(A), \mathcal{S}_i(B)) \leq \max_{1 \leq i \leq m} c_i \cdot d_H(A, B). \quad (1.2)$$

So assume A and B are both invariant sets, then $S(A) = A$ and $S(B) = B$, but that gives us that

$$d_H(A, B) = d_H(\mathcal{S}_i(A), \mathcal{S}_i(B)) \leq \max_{1 \leq i \leq m} c_i \cdot d_H(A, B)$$

and since $0 < \max_{1 \leq i \leq m} c_i < 1$, then $d_H(A, B) = 0$ so $A = B$ and it is unique.

Lastly we will prove (1.2). The first inequality comes by choosing $\delta = \max_{1 \leq i \leq m} d_H(\mathcal{S}_i(A), \mathcal{S}_i(B))$ since that means that $\mathcal{S}_i(B) \subset (\mathcal{S}_i(A))_\delta$ for all $0 \leq i \leq m$, thus it will definitely hold for $\bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(B) \subset (\bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(A))_\delta$ and vice versa. The second inequality comes from letting $\delta = d(A, B)$ then for every $a \in A$ we can choose some $b \in B$ such that $|a - b| \leq \delta$ in which case $|\mathcal{S}_i(a) - \mathcal{S}_i(b)| \leq c_i \delta$ and therefore $\mathcal{S}_i(A) \subset (\mathcal{S}_i(B))_{c_i \delta}$. $\square$

In the end we will mention a consequences of theorem 1.3. The theorem gives us a way to create a (not necessarily unique) sequence $(i_1, i_2, \dots)$ such that each $x \in F$ we can write

$$\{x\} = \{x_{i_1, i_2, \dots}\} = \bigcap_{k \geq 0} K_{i_1, \dots, i_k}. \quad (1.3)$$

where $K_{i_1, \dots, i_k} = \mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_k}(K)$. Thus in a way giving each $x \in F$ an address. This is possible since S^k is decreasing as k increases. This further lets us describe K as

$$K = \bigcup_{\mathcal{I}} \{x_{i_1, i_2, \dots}\}. \quad (1.4)$$

1.2 Construction the Vicsek set

Let $V_0 = \{p_1, p_2, p_3, p_4, p_5\}$ be the set of vertices in $\mathbb{R}^2$ given by $p_0 = (0, 0)$, $p_1 = (\xi, 0)$, $p_2 = (0, -\xi)$, $p_3 = (-\xi, 0)$ and $p_4 = (0, \xi)$ for some $\xi > 0$. Then define

$$\mathcal{S}_i(z) = \frac{1}{3}(z - p_i) + p_i, \quad \text{for } i = 1, 2, \dots, 5.$$

$\{\mathcal{S}_1, \dots, \mathcal{S}_5\}$ is indeed a IFS, since for every $x, y \in \mathbb{R}$

$$|\mathcal{S}_i(x) - \mathcal{S}_i(y)| = \left| \frac{1}{3}(x - p_i) + p_i - \left(\frac{1}{3}(y - p_i) + p_i \right) \right| = \frac{1}{3}|x - y|.$$

Thus by theorem 1.3 we define the Vicsek set K is as the unique non-empty compact subset in $\mathbb{R}^2$ such that

$$K = \bigcup_{i=1}^5 \mathcal{S}_i(K).$$

Since we are going studying the convergence of discretely defined operators to smooth operators we can define a discrete Vicsek set in the follow way. We start by define a sequence of sets $(V_m)_{m \geq 0}$ inductively:

$$V_{m+1} = \bigcup_{i=1}^5 \mathcal{S}_i(V_m)$$

this gives us a sequence of Vicsek set graphs $(G_m)_{m \geq 0}$ whose vertices are $(V_m)_{m \geq 0}$.

Notation: We denote $V_* = \bigcup_{m \geq 0} V_m$ and for any $p \in V_m$ we write the collection of neighbours of p in G_m by $V_{m,p}$. We sometimes write $x \sim_m y$ when x and y are neighbours and $x \sim y$, when there is no confusion as to what V_m is being mentioned. Lastly note that $N_m = \#V_m = 5^m \cdot 4 + 1$.

1.3 Hausdorff Dimensions

The Hausdorff dimension can be thought of as a form of "fractal dimension" and will be very important to this thesis. Since later in this thesis the notion of Hausdorff dimension will be used to bound and define many of the mathematical object that we will manipulate. Now Hausdorff dimension has the advantage of being defined for any set and it is based on measure, which we know how to work with. The greatest disadvantage is that it is, in most cases, very difficult to calculate from the definition, but we will find that given an invariant set of an IFS it will be quite easy to calculate. We begin this section by defining a cover for sets.

Definition 1.4: Let X be a metric space with metric $d(\cdot, \cdot)$. We say the countable collection of set $\{U_i\}_{i \geq 1}$ is a δ -cover of K if $K \subset \bigcup_{i \geq 1} U_i$ and $\text{diam } U_i \leq \delta$, where $\text{diam}(A) = \sup_{x, y \in A} d(x, y)$.

Definition 1.5: Let X be a metric space. If $K \subset X$ and $d \in [0, \infty)$ we define

$$H_\delta^d(K) = \inf \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \text{diam}(U_i)^d : \bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} U_i \supseteq K, \text{diam}(U_i) < \delta \right\}.$$

Then the d -dimensional *Hausdorff measure* is given by

$$\mathcal{H}^d(K) = \lim_{\delta \rightarrow 0} H_\delta^d(K)$$

Remark: The Hausdorff measure defined above, is not a measure in the normal measure theory sense but rather it is an outer measure. Though it is possible to prove that the Hausdorff measure restricted to Borel-set is a measure.

Moving swiftly along, we now want to investigate the behaviour of $\mathcal{H}^s$ as s changes. So let $U_{i \geq 1}$ be a δ -cover of K then we have for $0 \leq s < t$ that

$$\sum_{i \geq 1} \text{diam}(U_i)^t = \sum_{i \geq 1} \text{diam}(U_i)^{t-s} \text{diam}(U_i)^s \leq \delta^{t-s} \sum_{i \geq 1} \text{diam}(U_i)^s.$$

Taking infima on both sides we get that $H_\delta^t(K) \leq \delta^{t-s} H_\delta^s(K)$. If we let $\delta \rightarrow 0$ we see that if $\mathcal{H}^s(K) < \infty$ then $\mathcal{H}^t(K) = 0$ since $\delta^{t-s} \rightarrow 0$. Likewise if $\mathcal{H}^t > 0$ then $\mathcal{H}^s = \infty$. This tells us that if there is a point, say κ , such that $\mathcal{H}^\kappa$ is both positive and finite, $\mathcal{H}^s$ will be 0 for all $s > \kappa$ and ∞ for all $s < \kappa$. That such value is called the *Hausdorff Dimension* of K . Formally written:

Definition 1.6: The *Hausdorff dimension*, denoted $d_h(K)$ is given by

$$d_h(K) = \inf \{s \geq 0 : \mathcal{H}^s(K) = 0\} = \sup \{s \geq 0 : \mathcal{H}^s(K) = \infty\}.$$

Notation: When there is no confusion with regard to what set we are working with, we denote the Hausdorff dimension by d_h .

Now as stated before it is quite difficult to determine the Hausdorff dimension from the definition. Luckily we can with a few assumption find the Hausdorff dimension quite easily. But before we can prove that theorem we first define the open set condition and state a few important lemmas.

Definition 1.7: We say that a IFS $\mathcal{S}_{i=1 \leq i \leq m}$ satisfy the *open set condition* if there exists a non-empty bounded open set V such that

$$V \supset \bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(V)$$

and each $\mathcal{S}_i(V)$ is disjoint.

The first lemma is lower bound for the Hausdorff dimension.

Lemma 1.8: Let μ be a measure such that $\mu(F) \in (0, \infty)$ and suppose there are numbers $c, \epsilon > 0$ such that for some $s \geq 0$

$$\mu(U) \leq c \text{diam}(U)^s$$

for all sets U with $\text{diam}(U) \leq \epsilon$. Then $\mathcal{H}^s(F) \geq \frac{\mu(F)}{c}$ and $s \leq d_h$

Proof. If $\{U_i\}_{i \in I}$ is any cover of F then

$$0 < \mu(F) \leq \mu \left(\bigcup_{i \in I} U_i \right) \leq \sum_{i \in I} \mu(U_i) \leq c \sum_{i \in I} \text{diam}(U_i)^s$$

by definition of measures and properties of μ . Taking infimum we get $\mathcal{H}_\delta^s \geq \frac{\mu(F)}{c}$ and therefore $\mathcal{H}^s \geq \frac{\mu(F)}{c} > 0$ so by definition 1.6 $s \leq d_h$. $\square$

Lemma 1.9: Let $\{V_i\}$ be a collection of disjoint open subset of $\mathbb{R}^n$ such that each V_i contains a ball of radius $a_1 r$ and is contained in a ball of radius $a_2 r$. Then any ball B of radius R intersects at most $(1 + 2a_2)^n a_1^n$ of the closures $\bar{V}_i$

Proof. By assumption we know that $\text{diam}(V_i) \leq 2a_2 r$ for all V_i . So if some $\bar{V}_i$ intersect the ball with radius r , then $\bar{V}_i$ must be contained in the ball with radius $(2a_2 + 1)r$ concentric with the ball with radius r . Now let q denote the number of closures $\bar{V}_i$ that are intersecting with the ball with radius r . Then there exists q disjoint balls with radius $a_1 r$ that are contained in the ball with radius $(2a_2 + 1)r$, since by assumption each $\bar{V}_i$ contains a ball of radius $a_1 r$. It then follows that $q(a_1 r)^n \leq (2a_2 + 1)^n r^n$ which gives us the bound for q . $\square$

We now have all the tools required, thus we find.

Theorem 1.10: Suppose definition 1.7 holds for the similarities $\mathcal{S}_i$ on $\mathbb{R}^n$ with ratios $0 < c_i < 1$ for $1 \leq i \leq m$. If there for K holds

$$K = \bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(K) \quad (1.5)$$

then $d_h = s$ where s is given by

$$\sum_{i=1}^m c_i^s = 1. \quad (1.6)$$

Moreover, for this value of s , $0 < \mathcal{H}^s(K) < \infty$

Proof. Let $\mathcal{I}_k$ denote the set of all k -term sequences $(i_1, \dots, i_k)$ with $1 \leq i_j \leq m$. For any set A and any sequence $(i_1, \dots, i_k) \in \mathcal{I}_k$ we denote $A_{i_1, \dots, i_k} = \mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_k}(A)$.

We will start by finding an upper bound for the Hausdorff measure. We do this by finding an appropriate δ -cover for K . It follows that by repeated use of (1.5) that

$$K = \bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(K) = \bigcup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i \left(\bigcup_{j=1}^m \mathcal{S}_j(K) \right) = \bigcup_{i,j=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i \circ \mathcal{S}_j(K) = \dots = \bigcup_{\mathcal{I}_k} \mathcal{S}_{i_1, \dots, i_k}(K) = \bigcup_{\mathcal{I}_k} K_{i_1, \dots, i_k}.$$

Now noting that $\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_k}$ has the ratios $c_{i_1} \dots c_{i_k}$, we see

$$\sum_{\mathcal{I}_k} \text{diam}(K_{i_1, \dots, i_k})^s = \sum_{\mathcal{I}_k} (c_{i_1} \dots c_{i_k})^s \text{diam}(K)^s = \left(\sum_{i_1} c_{i_1}^s \right) \dots \left(\sum_{i_k} c_{i_k}^s \right) \text{diam}(K)^s = \text{diam}(K)^s$$

where the last equality comes from (1.6). Now for any $\delta > 0$ we can choose k so

$\text{diam}(K_{i_1, \dots, i_k}) (\max_{1 \leq i \leq m} c_i)^k \text{diam}(K) \leq \delta$ since $\max_{1 \leq i \leq m} c_i \in (0, 1)$. Thus $\{K_{i_1, \dots, i_k}\}_{\mathcal{I}_k}$ is a δ -cover for K thus $\mathcal{H}_\delta^s(K) \leq \text{diam}(K)^s$ in which case $\mathcal{H}^s(K) \leq \text{diam}(K)^s$ and we have an upper bound.

Next we need a lower bound for the Hausdorff dimension, which is substantially more difficult.

Let $\mathcal{I} = \{(i_1, i_2, \dots) : 1 \leq i_j \leq m\}$ be the set of all infinite sequences and let $\mathcal{I}_{i_1, \dots, i_k} = \{(i_1, \dots, i_k, q_{k+1}, \dots) : 1 \leq q_j \leq m\}$, so the first initial k "terms" are chosen and then the rest are the remaining permutations.

Now we create an outer measure μ on subset of $\mathcal{I}$ defined by $\mu(\mathcal{I}_{i_1, \dots, i_k}) = (c_{i_1} \dots c_{i_k})^s$. From this outer measure μ we construct an outer measure on K named $\tilde{\mu}$ defined in the following way. For some subset $A \subseteq K$ -

$$\tilde{\mu}(A) = \mu \left(\{(i_1, i_2, \dots) \in \mathcal{I} : x_{i_1, i_2, \dots} \in A \cap K\} \right)$$

Proofs that μ and $\tilde{\mu}$ are indeed outer measures can be found in [Haz22, Section 7].

Now we want to show that $\tilde{\mu}$ fulfills the properties of lemma 1.8.

Let V be the open set that satisfies definition 1.7. Since $\bar{V} \supset \mathcal{S}(\bar{V}) = \cup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(\bar{V})$, then by theorem 1.3 the decreasing sequence $S^k(\bar{V})$ converges to K . In particular we have $\bar{V} \supset S(\bar{V}) \supseteq \cup_{i=1}^m \mathcal{S}_i(\bar{V}) = F$ and $\bar{V}_{i_1, \dots, i_k} = \mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_k}(\bar{V}) \supseteq \mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_k}(F) = F_{i_1, \dots, i_k}$ for each finite sequence $(i_1, \dots, i_k)$.

Now let B be any ball $r < 1$. We estimate $\tilde{\mu}(B)$ by considering sets $V_{i_1, \dots, i_k}$ with diameters comparable with that of B with closures intersecting $F \cap B$. Further we define $\mathcal{Q}$ as the set of sequences $(i_1, \dots, i_k) \in \mathcal{I}$ such that i_k is the smallest k for which the following holds

$$\left(\min_{1 \leq i \leq m} c_i \right) r \leq c_{i_1} \dots c_{i_k} \leq r.$$

Note that no sequence in $\mathcal{Q}$ extends to another sequence. Since if two sequences are the same, but one is longer than the other the shorter sequence would be the one in $\mathcal{Q}$. Now by definition 1.7 $V_1, \dots, V_m$ are disjoint and so are $V_{i_1, \dots, i_k, 1}, \dots, V_{i_1, \dots, i_k, m}$ for each $(i_1, \dots, i_k)$. In particular we have that $\{V_{i_1, \dots, i_k} : (i_1, \dots, i_k) \in \mathcal{Q}\}$ is a collection of disjoint sets. We further note that by (1.4) we have

$$K = \bigcup_{\mathcal{I}} \{x_{i_1, i_2, \dots}\} \subseteq \bigcup_{\mathcal{Q}} K_{i_1, \dots, i_k} \subseteq \bigcup_{\mathcal{Q}} \bar{V}_{i_1, \dots, i_k}. \quad (1.7)$$

Next we choose a_1 and a_2 so that V contains a ball of radius a_1 and is contained in a ball of radius a_2 . Then for all $(i_1, \dots, i_k) \in \mathcal{Q}$ the set $V_{i_1, \dots, i_k}$ contains a ball of radius $c_{i_1} \dots c_{i_k} a_1$ and therefore one of radius $(\min_{1 \leq i \leq m} c_i) a_1 r$. Further it is contained in a ball of radius $c_{i_1} \dots c_{i_k} a_2$ and therefore one of radius $a_2 r$.

Now let $\mathcal{Q}_B$ be the set of all sequences $(i_1, \dots, i_k) \in \mathcal{Q}$ such that $\bar{V}_{i_1, \dots, i_k}$ intersects B . By lemma 1.9 there are at most

$$q = (1 + 2b)^n \left(\min_{1 \leq i \leq m} c_i \right)^{-n} a^{-n}$$

sequences in $\mathcal{Q}_B$. Thus we find that if

$$x_{i_1, \dots, i_k} \in F \cap B \subseteq \bigcup_{\mathcal{Q}_B} \bar{V}_{i_1, \dots, i_k}, \quad \text{by (1.7),}$$

then there must be some k such that $(i_1, \dots, i_k) \in \mathcal{Q}_B$ and therefore $(i_1, i_2, \dots) \in \cup_{\mathcal{Q}_B} I_{i_1, \dots, i_k}$. We can thus conclude that

$$\tilde{\mu}(B) = \mu \left(\{(i_1, i_2, \dots) \in \mathcal{I} : x_{i_1, i_2, \dots} \in F \cap B\} \right) \leq \mu \left(\bigcup_{\mathcal{Q}_B} I_{i_1, \dots, i_k} \right).$$

It then follows that

$$\tilde{\mu}(B) \leq \sum_{\mathcal{Q}_B} \mu(I_{i_1, \dots, i_k}) = \sum_{\mathcal{Q}_B} (c_{i_1} \dots c_{i_k})^s \leq \sum_{\mathcal{Q}_B} r^s \leq q r^s.$$

Since any set U is contained in a ball of radius $\text{diam}(U)$, we have that $\tilde{\mu} \leq q \text{diam}(U)^s$. Thus by lemma 1.8 we have that $\mathcal{H}^s(F) \geq \frac{\tilde{\mu}(F)}{q} = q^{-1} > 0$, thus $0 < q^{-1} \leq \mathcal{H}^s(F) \leq \text{diam}(F)^s < \infty$ thus by definition 1.6 we have that $s = d_h$ $\square$

Spectral and Walk dimension

Further in this thesis we will bound certain random fields and functions by a constant we call the spectral dimension. It depends on two other factors, namely the Hausdorff dimension, which we have just discussed, and of the walk dimension. Properly explaining the walk dimension is outside the scope of this thesis, but we will give some intuition as to what it is.

Let B_t be a Brownian motion on K , and $B(x, r)$ be the ball centered at $x \in K$ with radius r . then the *walk dimension* is the constant $d_w > 0$ such that

$$c_1 r^{d_w} \leq \mathbb{E} [\tau(x, r)] \leq c_2 r^{d_w}$$

where $\tau(x, r) = \inf \{t \geq 0 : B_t \notin B(x, r)\}$. The intuition is that it is the average escape rate, meaning how fast does the Brownian motion escape the ball. This explanation for the walk dimension is a rather simplified and condensed one, for further reference see [Mar98, Chapter 3]. But it does leads us to be able to define the spectral dimension as following:

Definition 1.11: Let d_h be the Hausdorff dimension and d_w the walk dimension then the spectral dimension is

$$d_s = \frac{2d_h}{d_w}$$

1.4 Hausdorff, walk and spectral dimension of the Vicsek set

Since the main purpose of the thesis is to study the Vicsek set, we will in the section state the different dimensions needed. Recalling that the Vicsek set is the unique set K such, for the iterative functions system $\{\mathcal{S}_1, \dots, \mathcal{S}_5\}$ with $\mathcal{S}_i(z) = \frac{1}{3}(z - p_i) + p_i$ where $p_i \in V_0$, it holds that

$$K = \bigcup_{i=1}^5 \mathcal{S}_i(K).$$

We want to use theorem 1.10 to find the Hausdorff dimension so we need to check that $\mathcal{S}_{i1 \leq i \leq 5}$ satisfies definition 1.7.

So if we choose the open set V to be the open box where each corner is a point in V_0 (see section 1.4), then by continuity of $\mathcal{S}_i$ we have that $\mathcal{S}_i(V)$ is an open and disjoint. The disjointness of $\mathcal{S}_i$ is that each $\mathcal{S}_i$ "retracts" the whole set towards the point p_i and we get that the sets are disjoint. One might worry about the point where the open sets meet, but since the points in V_0 (excluding the middle point) are not included in the initial open box we have that they don't intersect.

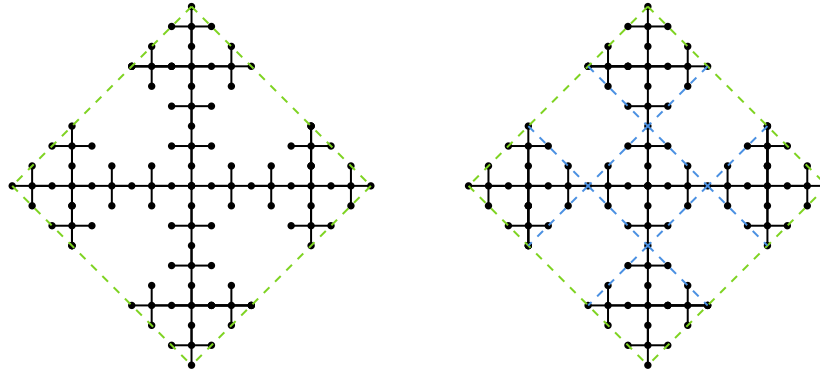


Diagram 1.1: The opens sets V (green) and $\mathcal{S}_i(V)$ (blue)

We can therefore conclude from theorem 1.10 that

$$\sum_{i=1}^5 \left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^{d_h} = 1 \Rightarrow \left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^{d_h} = \frac{1}{5} \Rightarrow d_h = \frac{\log 5}{\log 3}.$$

As stated earlier we will not be calculating the walk dimension, but instead just state it. The walk dimension for the Vicsek set is $d_w = d_h + 1$ and we can make the following definition

Definition 1.12: The following constants hold for the Vicsek set K

$$d_h = \frac{\log 5}{\log 3}, \quad d_w = d_h + 1, \quad \text{and} \quad d_s = \frac{d_h}{2d_w} = \frac{\log 5}{2 \log 15}$$

Having just calculated the Hausdorff dimension of the Vicsek set we will immediately use it to construct the following measure.

Definition 1.13: The normalized Hausdorff measure on K which is given by the borel measure μ on K such for any $i_1, \dots, i_n \in \{1, \dots, 5\}$

$$\mu(\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_n}(K)) = 5^{-n}.$$

The measure μ has the following property:

Proposition 1.14: This measure μ is d_h -Ahlfors regular, i.e there exists $c_1, c_2 > 0$ such there for every $x \in K$ and $r \in [0, \text{diam}(K)]$

$$c_1 r^{d_h} \leq \mu(B(x, r)) \leq c_2 r^{d_h}.$$

Proof. If $r = 0$ the proof is obvious. So let $r \in (0, 1)$, and choose n so $R \cdot 3^{-(n+1)} \leq r \leq R \cdot 3^n$ where $R = \text{diam}(K)$. Note that for a sequence we have

$$\text{diam}(\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_m}(K)) = 2 \cdot 3^{-m} \cdot R.$$

We can therefore construct a sequence $i_1, \dots, i_n$ and $i_1, \dots, i_{n+1}$ such that $B(x, r) \supset \mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_{n+1}}$ and $\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_n} \cap B(x, r) \neq \emptyset$. Since $B(x, r)$ intersects with at most 5 of these sequences we find an upper bound to be.

$$\mu(B(x, r)) \leq 5 \cdot \mu(\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_n}(K)) = 5 \cdot 5^{-n} = 5^2 \cdot 5^{-(n+1)} \leq 5 \cdot (R \cdot 3^{-(n+1)})^{d_h} \leq 5 \cdot r^{d_h}.$$

thus we have an upper bound. This bound also works for $R < 1$ since then we just omit the constant from the calculations and have $3^{-(n+1)} \leq R^{-1}r$ and the bound becomes $5 \cdot (R^{-1}r)^{d_h}$. Likewise for the lower bound we have that there exists a sequence $i_1, \dots, i_{n+1}$ such that $B(x, r) \supset \mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_n}$ in which case

$$\mu(B(x, r)) \geq \mu(\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_{n+1}}(K)) = 5^{-(n+1)} \geq R \cdot 5^{-(n+1)} \geq 5 \cdot (R^{-1}r)^{d_h}.$$

Again this bound also holds for $R > 1$ since we again omit R in the calculations have $R^{-1}r \leq 3^n$ and the bound $5 \cdot (R^{-1}r)^{d_h}$.

Now assume $\text{diam}(K) \geq r \geq 1$ the upper bound is simply $\mu(B(x, r)) \leq \mu(K) = 1 \leq r$. For the lower bound consider that there exists $m \in \mathbb{N}$ so $3^{m-1} \leq r \leq 3^m$, then

$$\mu(B(x, r)) \geq \mu(\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_{m-1}}(K)) = 5^{-(m-1)} = 5 \cdot (3^{-m})^{d_h} \geq (r3^{-2m})^{d_h}$$

as desired. $\square$

As we will want to work with the graph approximations of the Vicsek set we also now define a sequence of discrete measures.

Definition 1.15:

$$\mu_m = \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} \delta_p \tag{1.8}$$

where $a_m = 5^m \cdot 4 + 1$.

We have that $\mu_m \rightarrow \mu$ as $m \rightarrow \infty$, this follows from the fact that $\mathcal{S}_i(K)$ "shrinks" the fractal down to $1/5$ the size around the point p_i . In which case for any sequence $i_1, \dots, i_n$ we have that

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \mu_m(\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_n}(K)) &= \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} \delta_p(\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_n}(K)) \\ &= \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{a_m} \cdot 5^{-n} \cdot (5^m \cdot 4 + 1) = 5^{-n} = \mu(\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_n}(K)) \end{aligned}$$

recalling that $\#V_m = 5^m \cdot 4 + 1$. This leads us to the following corollary:

Corollary 1.16: The sequence of measure $(\mu_m)_{m \geq 0}$ defined in (1.8) converges weakly to the normalized Hausdorff measure μ on the Vicsek set K . That is

$$\lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \int_K f \, d\mu_m = \int_K f \, d\mu$$

Chapter 2

And now for something completely different

In future section the Gaussian random fields will be defined using the eigenvalues and eigenfunctions of the Dirichlet Laplacian. We will find that the Dirichlet Laplacian is an extension of the Kigami Laplacian. But to construct the Kigami Laplacian we will need the discrete Laplacian as we will prove that the Kigami Laplacian is the pointwise limit of the discrete Laplacian. We will therefore start by introducing first the discrete Laplacian, then the Kigami Laplacian and culminating in the Dirichlet Laplacian. Therefore consider the discrete Laplacian on the Vicsek set.

Definition 2.1: Let $\ell(V_m)$ be the set of functions of $f : V_m \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. Then for any $f \in \ell(V_m)$ the *discrete Laplacian* on V_m is defined as

$$\Delta_m f(p) = 3^m \frac{1}{N_p} \sum_{q \in V_{m,p}} (f(q) - f(p)), \quad p \in V_m \setminus V_0$$

where

$$N_p = \begin{cases} 5^{-m} & \text{if } \#V_{m,p} = 4 \\ 2 \cdot 5^{-(m+1)} & \text{if } \#V_{m,p} = 2 \\ 5^{-(m+1)} & \text{if } \#V_{m,p} = 1 \end{cases}$$

Remark 2.2: One is able to describe the discrete Laplacian as a matrix. First let $p_1, \dots, p_{N_m}$ be the vertices in V_m then the *Laplacian matrix* L_m is constructed in the following way:

$$L_{i,j} = \begin{cases} \#V_{m,p_i}, & \text{if } i = j \\ -1, & \text{if } i \neq j \text{ and } p_j \in V_{m,p_i} \\ 0, & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases}$$

Further $\#V_{m,p_i}$ is also called the *degree of* p_i

2.1 Graph Energies

In this section we will be following the arguments given by in chapter 1 of [Str06]. Many of the proof are going to rely on the graph energy. Thus we are first going to define and prove some properties of the graph energies form.

Definition 2.3: Given a finite connected graph G and it vertices V_m the for functions $u, v : V_m \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ we define the *graph energy* to be

$$E_m(u, v) = \sum_{x \sim y} (u(x) - u(y)) (v(x) - v(y)).$$

Notation: We will write $E_m(u) = E_m(u, u)$.

Since we in the end want to work on the whole of the Vicsek set K . We will want to create an extension of a function $u : V_m \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, such that it is defined on V_{m+n} . This is done in the following way

Definition 2.4: Let K be a graph and $u : V_m \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, then an *extension of* u is a function $u' : V_{m+n} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ where $u' \upharpoonright_{V_m} = u$.

It is obvious that $E_{m+n}(u') \geq E_m(u)$. Further one quickly notices that there must be a function that minimizes the graph Dirichlet form of a given graph. We denote such a function with $\tilde{u}$ and call it a *harmonic extension*.

Definition 2.5: Let $\tilde{u} : V_{m+n} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ with $|_{V_m} = u$ is called a *harmonic extension* if $E_{m+n}(\tilde{u}) \leq E_{m+n}(u')$ for all $u' : V_{m+n} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ with $u' |_{V_m} = u$.

In some cases we have that $E_{m+n}(\tilde{u}) = r^n E_m(u)$ for some $r \in (0, 1)$. But instead of normalizing the values on E_m we will normalize E_{m+n} . Thus getting

$$r^{-n} E_{m+n}(\tilde{u}) = E_m(u), \quad \text{and} \quad r^{-n} E_{m+n}(u') \geq E_m(u)$$

for every extension u' of u . The constant r is called the *renormalization constant*. From the equality above we can define the following

Definition 2.6: The *renormalized graph energy* are defined as

$$\mathcal{E}_m(u) = r^{-m} E_m(u)$$

Note that the sequence $\{\mathcal{E}_m(u)\}$ is a non-decreasing sequence.

Based on this definition we see that for a harmonic extension $\tilde{u}$ of u we have that

$$\mathcal{E}_{m+1}(\tilde{u}) = r^{-(m+1)} E_{m+1}(\tilde{u}) = r^{-m} E_m(u) = \mathcal{E}_m(u).$$

Extending this to the bilinear form we have for harmonic extension $\tilde{u}, \tilde{v}$ of u, v that

$$\mathcal{E}_{m+1}(\tilde{u}, \tilde{v}) = \mathcal{E}_m(u, v).$$

Actually one even has that for the bilinear form then if $\tilde{u}$ is the harmonic extension of u and v' is any extension of v then

$$\mathcal{E}_{m+1}(\tilde{u}, v') = \mathcal{E}_m(u, v). \quad (2.1)$$

See [Str06] for further details.

Now that we have definition 2.6, we can define what it means to be a harmonic function.

Definition 2.7: u is a *harmonic function* if u minimizes $\mathcal{E}_m(u)$ for all m , given boundary values on V_0 .

The harmonic functions will be used extensively throughout this section. We start by finding the renormalization constant for the Vicsek set.

Renormalization constant on the Vicsek set

In the previous section we have talked about a harmonic function, but without every constructing one. We will therefore in this next section show how to create an harmonic function for the Vicsek set for any start boundary values.

Given $V_0 = \{q_0, q_1, q_2, q_3, q_4\}$ and $u : V_0 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ then we have that

$$E_0(u) = (u(q_0) - u(q_1))^2 + (u(q_0) - u(q_2))^2 + (u(q_0) - u(q_3))^2 + (u(q_0) - u(q_4))^2.$$

We are going to exploit symmetry of the Vicsek set. Since all four "limbs" of the Vicsek set are identical we will only look at one of the limbs since the other limbs will be the same computations. So if we want to minimize $E_1(u')$, we see for the limb between q_0 and q_1 that

$$\begin{aligned} E_1(u') &= (u'(q_1) - u'(p_0))^2 + (u'(p_0) - u'(p_2))^2 \\ &\quad + (u'(p_0) - u'(p_3))^2 + (u'(p_0) - u'(p_4))^2 + (u'(p_3) - u'(q_0))^2. \end{aligned}$$

We are then going to optimize with regards to $u'(p_i)$ for $i = 0, 1, 2, 4$. Taking the derivative of the right side and solving for 0 we get the following

$$\begin{aligned} 4u'(p_0) &= u'(q_1) + u'(p_2) + u'(p_3) + u'(p_4) \\ 2u'(p_3) &= u'(q_0) + u'(p_0) \\ u'(p_2) &= u'(p_0) \\ u'(p_4) &= u'(p_0). \end{aligned}$$

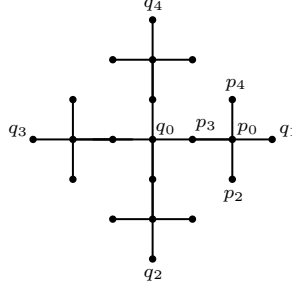


Diagram 2.1: Points on the Vicsek set

Solving these equations we get

$$\begin{aligned} u'(p_0) &= \frac{2}{3}u'(q_1) + \frac{1}{3}u'(q_0) \\ u'(p_2) &= \frac{2}{3}u'(q_1) + \frac{1}{3}u'(q_0) \\ u'(p_4) &= \frac{2}{3}u'(q_1) + \frac{1}{3}u'(q_0) \\ u'(p_3) &= \frac{2}{3}u'(q_0) + \frac{1}{3}u'(q_1). \end{aligned}$$

So what we have found is that to minimize the value in the points of the Vicsek set, then the value in the next point is going to be $2/3$ the value from the closest point and $1/3$ the value from the next closest point.

If one calculates the graph energy they will find

$$E_1(u') = \frac{1}{3} \sum_{i=1}^4 (u'(q_i) - u'(q_0))^2 = \frac{1}{3} E_0(u').$$

Since the Vicsek set is a self-similar set, we have that going from V_1 to V_2 is the same as going from V_m to V_{m+1} . Thus we can just extend the above calculations to doing it m times, in which case

$$E_{m+1}(u') = \frac{1}{3} E_m(u')$$

Thus we get our renormalization constant for the vicsek set to be $r = \frac{1}{3}$. And altogether we find that from definition 2.6 we have that

$$\mathcal{E}_m(u) = 3^m E_m(u).$$

2.2 Kigami Laplacian

With the renormalization constant found we will return to finding the Kigmai Laplacian. Recall from definition 2.6 that we have defined a sequence $\mathcal{E}_m$ for functions on V^* . It will therefore make sense to define the following limit

Definition 2.8: Let $u : V^* \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ then define the limit

$$\mathcal{E}(u, u) = \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \mathcal{E}_m(u, u)$$

where we set

$$\text{dom } \mathcal{E} = \{u \in \ell(V_*) : \mathcal{E}(u) < \infty\}.$$

and denote $\text{dom}_0 \mathcal{E}$ with the functions in $\text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ that vanish V_0 .

This definition only involves functions defined on V^* , but we find that functions in $\text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ are uniformly continuous and therefore has an unique extension to K . We even have that $\text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ is dense in $C(K)$.

Proposition 2.9:

- (i) Let $u \in \text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ then u is uniformly continuous on V^* .
- (ii) $\text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ is dense in $C(K)$.

Proof. We start with (i). Let $u \in \text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ then $\mathcal{E}_m(u) \leq \mathcal{E}(u)$ since $\mathcal{E}_m$ is non-decreasing in m . So for $x, y \in V_m$ if $y \in V_{m,x}$ we have that

$$r^{-m}(u(x) - u(y))^2 \leq \mathcal{E}_m(u) \leq \mathcal{E}(u) \quad (2.2)$$

since $r^{-m}(u(x) - u(y))^2$ is a term in $\mathcal{E}_m(u)$. Thus

$$|u(x) - u(y)| \leq r^{\frac{m}{2}} \mathcal{E}(u)^{\frac{1}{2}}.$$

I cannot get this to be uniformly convergent. Now consider a chain of points $x_m, x_{m+1}, \dots, x_{m+k}$ where $x_{m+j} \in V_{m+j}$ and $x_{m+j} \in V_{m+j+1, x_{m+j+1}}$. Then we have

$$|u(x_m) - u(x_{m+k})| \leq r^{\frac{m}{2}} \left(1 + r^{\frac{1}{2}} + \dots + r^{\frac{k}{2}}\right) \mathcal{E}(u)^{\frac{1}{2}} \leq \frac{r^m}{1 - r^{\frac{1}{2}}} \mathcal{E}^{\frac{1}{2}}$$

by using (2.2) and the triangle inequality multiple times. From the geometry of K we see that $x, y \in V^*$ belong to the same or adjacent m -cells then we can connect x to y by at most 2 such chains **What does he mean?**, so

$$|u(x) - u(y)| \leq \frac{2r^{m/2}}{1 - r^{\frac{1}{2}}} \mathcal{E}(u)^{\frac{1}{2}}$$

and we have a bound for all $x, y \in V^*$.

For proof of (ii) we refer to [Str06]. □

We are now ready to define the Kigami Laplacian. We will denote this with Δ_μ and we will notice that it depends on a measure μ , which will be the one defined in (1.13).

Definition 2.10: Let $u \in \text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ and let f be continuous, then $u \in \text{dom } \Delta_\mu$ and $\Delta_\mu u = f$ if

$$\mathcal{E}(u, v) = \int_K f v \, d\mu, \quad \forall v \in \text{dom}_0 \mathcal{E}$$

As mentioned before we are going to want Δ_μ to be defined as the limit of Δ_m . The constants 3^m and 5^m are not random, but chosen such that the Kigami Laplacian makes sense. But to prove the pointwise limit and actually calculate the constants, we will need a few lemmas and definitions. Since we will be finding the constant we introduce a new notation for the discrete graph Laplacian without its constants. We start by defining this graph Laplacian and then followed by a harmonic function which will be used extensively in the following proofs.

Definition 2.11: Let Δ_m be defined as in definition 2.1, we then define

$$\tilde{\Delta}_m f(p) = 3^{-m} N_p \Delta_m f(p).$$

Definition 2.12: Given m and a point $x \in V_m \setminus V_0$ then define the harmonic function $\psi_x^m : V^* \rightarrow [0, 1]$ that for a $y \in V_m$ is $\psi_x^{(m)}(y) = \delta_{xy}$.

I might seem that we have only defined $\psi_x^{(m)}$ to have values on V_m . But the function is defined on the whole of V^* , where the values in $K \setminus V_m$ comes from the fact that it is an harmonic extension. We even have that function $\psi_x^{(m)}$ can be used to describe $\tilde{\Delta}_m$.

Proposition 2.13: Let $u \in \text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ and $\Delta_\mu u = f$ then

$$r^{-m} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x) = \int_K f \psi_x^{(m)} \, d\mu$$

Proof. We see that

$$\mathcal{E}_m(u, \psi_x^{(m)}) = r^{-m} \sum_{p \sim_m x} (u(p) - u(x)) (\psi_x^{(m)}(p) - \psi_x^{(m)}(x)) = r^{-m} \sum_{q \in V_{m,x}} (u(x) - u(q)) = r^{-m} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x)$$

where the second equality comes the fact that only edges containing x are going to see change in $\psi_x^{(m)}$. Now by (2.1) we have that

$$r^{-m} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x) = \mathcal{E}_m(u, \psi_x^{(m)}) = \mathcal{E}(u, \psi_x^{(m)}) = \int_K f \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu$$

as desired. $\square$

Lemma 2.14: Let $v : V^* \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a harmonic function on the Vicsek set. If $v(x) = v(y_i) = 0$ for all $y_i \in V_{m,x}$ then $v(\omega) = 0$ for all $\omega \in \overline{B_x}$ where $B_x = \left(\bigcup_{k>0} S^k(x) \right) \cup \left(\bigcup_i \{y_i\} \right)$

Proof. It is clear that $v(\omega) = 0$ for any $\omega \in B_x$, since the value of the points $S^k(x)$ with $k > 0$ depends on the value of x and its neighbours.

So we need to check the points in $\overline{B_x} \setminus B_x$. Now since B_x is dense in $\overline{B_x}$, then for any $\omega \in \overline{B_x}$ we have that there exists a sequence $x_n \in B_x$ such that $x_n \rightarrow \omega$. By the fact that v is continuous on K it is continuous on $\overline{B_x}$, in which case $|v(x_n) - v(\omega)| \rightarrow 0$ as $n \rightarrow \infty$, but $v(x_n) = 0$ for all x_n , so $v(\omega) = 0$ as desired. $\square$

What lemma 2.14 states, is if any two points in V_m are neighbours, say x and y , and $v(x) = v(y) = 0$, then the function value at any point between x and y is also zero.

Lemma 2.15: Set $F_m = \text{supp } \psi_x^{(m)}$, then

$$F_0 \supset F_1 \supset F_2 \supset F_3 \supset \dots$$

Further F_m is contained in the open ball $B(x, \epsilon_m)$ where $\epsilon_m \rightarrow 0$ as $m \rightarrow \infty$.

Proof. If we set $\Omega_m = \left\{ z \in K : \psi_x^{(m)}(z) = \psi_x^{(m)}(y) = 0, \forall y \in V_{m,z} \right\}$ then $F_m = K \setminus \left(\bigcup_{\alpha \in \Omega_m} \overline{B_\alpha} \right)$. It is clear that $\Omega_m \subset \Omega_{m+1}$ and that there are new points in Ω_{m+1} that are not just a point between some already existing points $x_1, x_2 \in \Omega_m$. We therefore have from the way that F_m is constructed that $F_m \supset F_{m+1}$.

The containment of F_m in $B(x, \epsilon_m)$ follows from lemma 2.14 and that $F_m \supset F_{m+1}$. $\square$

We are now ready to prove the pointwise formula

Theorem 2.16: Let $u \in \text{dom } \Delta_\mu$. Then the pointwise formula

$$\Delta_\mu u(x) = \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} r^{-m} \left(\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu \right)^{-1} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x)$$

holds with the limit uniform across $V_* \setminus V_0$. Conversely, suppose u is a continuous function and the right side of the limit converges uniformly to a continuous function on $V_* \setminus V_0$. Then $u \in \text{dom } \Delta_\mu$ and the equation holds.

Proof. Suppose $u \in \text{dom } \Delta_\mu$ and $\Delta_\mu u = f$, then by proposition 2.13 we have that

$$r^{-m} \left(\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu \right)^{-1} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x) = \frac{\int_K f \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu}{\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu}$$

for any $x \in V_m \setminus V_0$. The right side needs to converge uniformly, so let $\epsilon > 0$. Since $f(x)$ is continuous then by lemma 2.15 we can choose m large enough so for all $x, y \in F_m$ that $|f(x) - f(y)| < \epsilon$, then

$$\begin{aligned}
 \left| \frac{\int_K f \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu}{\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu} - f(x) \right| &= \left| \frac{\int_K f \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu}{\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu} - \frac{\int_K f(x) \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu}{\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu} \right| \\
 &= \left| \frac{\int_K (f(y) - f(x)) \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu}{\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu} \right| \\
 &\leq \frac{\int_{F_m} |f(y) - f(x)| d\mu}{\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu} \\
 &\leq \frac{\epsilon \int_{F_m} d\mu}{\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu} \\
 &= \epsilon
 \end{aligned}$$

in which case

$$\lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} r^{-m} \left(\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu \right)^{-1} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x) = \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\int_K f \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu}{\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu} = f(x) = \Delta_\mu u(x)$$

Moving on to the second half of the proof. Suppose that $r^m \left(\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu \right)^{-1} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x)$ converges uniformly to a continuous function f . Now for any $v \in \text{dom}_0 \mathcal{E}$ we have

$$\mathcal{E}_m(u, v) = r^{-m} \sum_{\substack{x \sim y \\ m}} (u(y) - u(x)) (v(y) - v(x)).$$

If we collect all the terms that contain the factor $v(x)$ for a fixed $x \in V_m \setminus V_0$ then each $v(x)$ will be of the form $-v(x) (u(y) - u(x))$ for each $y \sim x$. In which case we get

$$\begin{aligned}
 \mathcal{E}_m(u, v) &= -r^{-m} \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} v(x) \left(\sum_{\substack{x \sim y \\ m}} (u(y) - u(x)) \right) \\
 &= - \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} v(x) r^{-m} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x)
 \end{aligned}$$

While it seems we lose many terms by removing $v(y)$, but they are instead contained in

$$\sum_{\substack{x \sim y \\ m}} (u(y) - u(x)).$$

Note that the sum is "reset" for every x so we count both the relation $x \sim y$ and $y \sim x$.

Now if we define $f_m(x) = r^{-m} \left(\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu \right)^{-1} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x)$ then $f_m \rightarrow f$ uniformly by assumption and we can rewrite the above as

$$\begin{aligned}
 \mathcal{E}_m(u, v) &= - \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} v(x) \left(\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu \right) r^{-m} \left(\int_K \psi_x^{(m)} d\mu \right)^{-1} \tilde{\Delta}_m u(x) \\
 &= - \int_K \left(\sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} v(x) f_m(x) \psi_x^{(m)} \right) d\mu.
 \end{aligned}$$

Since the convergence in the next calculation follows from a quite lengthy argument, we will show the calculation and then return to the convergence. So we have that

$$\mathcal{E}(u, v) = \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \mathcal{E}_m(u, v) = \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} - \int_K \left(\sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} v(x) f_m(x) \psi_x^{(m)} \right) d\mu = - \int_K v(y) f(y) d\mu. \quad (2.3)$$

and we have that $u \in \text{dom} \Delta_\mu$. Now looking at the convergence in (2.3) we have

$$\begin{aligned} & \left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} v(x) f_m(x) \psi_x^{(m)}(y) - v(y) f(y) \right| \\ & \leq \left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} (v(x) f_m(x) - v(y) f(y)) \psi_x^{(m)}(y) \right| + \left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} v(y) f(y) \psi_x^{(m)}(y) - v(y) f(y) \right| \end{aligned}$$

Looking at each term individually we first see that

$$\begin{aligned} & \left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} (v(x) f_m(x) - v(y) f(y)) \psi_x^{(m)}(y) \right| \\ & \leq \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} \left(|v(x) f_m(x) - v(y) f_m(y)| + |v(y) f_m(y) - v(y) f(y)| \right) \psi_x^{(m)}(y) \end{aligned}$$

now again we will look at each term starting with $|v(y) f_m(y) - v(y) f(y)|$. Here

$$|v(y) f_m(y) - v(y) f(y)| = |v(y)| |f_m(y) - f(y)|$$

and since v is continuous on K , which is compact, there is a constant C_1 so $|v(y)| \leq C_1$ for all $x \in K$. Since f_m converges uniformly to f we can choose m_1 such that $|f_{m_1}(y) - f(y)| \leq \frac{\epsilon}{C_1}$ and the convergence of that term follows.

Next is $|v(x) f_m(x) - v(y) f_m(y)|$, here we find

$$|v(x) f_m(x) - v(y) f_m(y)| \leq |v(x)| |f_m(x) - f(y)| + |f_m(y)| |v(x) - v(y)|$$

First $|f_m(y)| |v(x) - v(y)|$, here $|f_m(y)| \leq C_2$. By lemma 2.15 and continuity of v we can choose m_2 so $|v(x) - v(y)| \leq \frac{\epsilon}{C_2}$ for all $x \in F_{m_2}$. The reason we can choose m_2 is because $\psi_x^{(m)}$ is multiplied onto all the terms so we just restrict v to F_{m_2} .

Second $|v(x)| |f_m(x) - f(y)|$, again $|v(x)| \leq C_1$, but

$$|f_m(x) - f(y)| \leq |f_m(x) - f(x)| + |f(x) - f_m(y)| \leq |f_m(x) - f(x)| + |f(x) - f(y)| + |f(y) - f_m(y)|$$

First choose m_3 so $|f_{m_3}(x) - f(x)| \leq \frac{\epsilon}{3C_1}$, next by continuity of f choose m_4 so $|f(x) - f(y)| \leq \frac{\epsilon}{3C_1}$ for all $x \in F_{m_4}$, lastly choose m_5 so $|f(y) - f_{m_5}(y)| \leq \frac{\epsilon}{3C_1}$.

So we now have for $m \geq \max\{m_1, m_2, \dots, m_5\}$ that

$$\left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} (v(x) f_m(x) - v(y) f(y)) \psi_x^{(m)}(y) \right| \leq \epsilon \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} \psi_x^{(m)}(y) \leq \epsilon$$

We are now going to look at $\left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} v(y) f(y) \psi_x^{(m)}(y) - v(y) f(y) \right|$ here

$$\left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} v(y) f(y) \psi_x^{(m)}(y) - v(y) f(y) \right| = |v(y) f(y)| \left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} \psi_x^{(m)}(y) - 1 \right|$$

Now to show

$$\left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} \psi_x^{(m)}(y) - 1 \right| = 0, \quad \text{as } m \rightarrow \infty. \quad (2.4)$$

If $y \in V^*$, then choose m_6 so $y \in V_{m_6}$ and 2.4 holds.

Next assume $y \in K \setminus V^*$, then since V^* is dense in K we can choose a sequence $(x_n)_{n=1}$ where $x_n \rightarrow y$ as $n \rightarrow \infty$, and since $\psi_x^{(m)}$ is continuous on K then $\psi_x^{(m)}(x_n) \rightarrow \psi_x^{(m)}(y)$ as $n \rightarrow \infty$. This gives us the following

$$\left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} \psi_x^{(m)}(y) - 1 \right| \leq \left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} \psi_x^{(m)}(y) - \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} \psi_x^{(m)}(x_n) \right| + \left| \sum_{x \in V_m \setminus V_0} \psi_x^{(m)}(x_n) - 1 \right|$$

Now choose an n_1 so $|\psi_x^{(m)}(x_{n_1}) - \psi_x^{(m)}(y)| \leq \epsilon$ and an m_7 so $x_{n_1} \in V_{m_7}$. Both can then be bounded by $m \geq \max\{n_1, m_7\}$. Thus we have the convergence of (2.3). $\square$

Lastly we calculate the constant $\left(\int_K \psi_x^{(m)}(y) \, d\mu(y) \right)^{-1}$.

Lemma 2.17:

$$\int_K \psi_x^m(y) \, d\mu(y) = \begin{cases} 5^{-m} & \text{if } \#V_{m,p} = 4 \\ 2 \cdot 5^{-(m+1)} & \text{if } \#V_{m,p} = 2 \\ 5^{-(m+1)} & \text{if } \#V_{m,p} = 1 \end{cases}$$

Proof. Recall from eq. (1.3) that we can write a point x 's "address" with the infinite sequence $K_{i_1, i_2, \dots} = (\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_2} \circ \dots)(K)$. These sequences are not necessarily unique and we will have three cases, the first two where x has a unique sequence and $\#V_{m,p} \in \{1, 4\}$ and one where x has two sequences and $\#V_{m,p} = 2$. If we start with two sequences, then we have that $x \in K_{i_1, \dots, i_m} \cap K_{i_1, \dots, i_{m'}}$ in which case from lemma 2.14 it follows that $\text{supp } \psi_x^m = K_{i_1, \dots, i_{m+1}} \cup K_{i_1, \dots, i_{m'+1}}$, for appropriate choice of i_{m+1} and $i_{m'+1}$. Now if $x \in K_{i_1, \dots, i_m}$ and $\#V_{m,p} = 4$ we have that $\text{supp } \psi_x^m = K_{i_1, \dots, i_m}$, but if $\#V_{m,p}$ then $\text{supp } \psi_x^m = K_{i_1, \dots, i_{m+1}}$ again for appropriate i_{m+1} .

If we now look at an $\alpha \in \text{supp } \psi_x^m$ it is going to have a sequence of the form $K_{i_1, \dots, i_m, \alpha_{j_1}, \alpha_{j_2}, \dots}$ or $K_{i_1, \dots, i_k, \alpha_{j_1}, \alpha_{j_2}, \dots}$ where $k \in \{m+1, m'+1\}$. We therefore have that

$$\int_K \psi_x^{(m)}(y) \, d\mu(y) = \int_{\text{supp } \psi_x^m} \psi_x^{(m)}(y) \, d\mu(y) = \sum_{\alpha \in \text{supp } \psi_x^m} \int_{\{\alpha\}} \psi_x^m(y) \, d\mu(y)$$

If x has a unique sequence and $\#V_{m,p} = 4$ then we have that

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{\alpha \in \text{supp } \psi_x^m} \int_{\{\alpha\}} \psi_x^m(y) \, d\mu(y) &= \sum_{\alpha \in \text{supp } \psi_x^m} \mu \left((\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_m} \circ \mathcal{S}_{\alpha_{j_1}} \circ \mathcal{S}_{\alpha_{j_2}} \dots)(K) \right) \\ &= \mu \left(\bigcup_{n \geq 0} (\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_m} \circ \mathcal{S}_{\alpha_{j_n}} \circ \dots)(K) \right) = \mu((\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_m})(K)) = 5^{-m}. \end{aligned}$$

By the almost exact same calculation we find that if x has a unique sequence and $\#V_{m,p} = 1$ then

$$\sum_{\alpha \in \text{supp } \psi_x^m} \int_{\{\alpha\}} \psi_x^m(y) \, d\mu(y) = 5^{-(m+1)}.$$

Now if x does not have a unique sequence then

$$\begin{aligned}
 \sum_{\alpha \in \text{supp } \psi_x^m} \int_{\{\alpha\}} \psi_x^m(y) \, d\mu(y) &= \sum_{\alpha \in \text{supp } \psi_x^m} \left[\mu \left((\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_m+1} \circ \mathcal{S}_{\alpha_{j_1}} \circ \mathcal{S}_{\alpha_{j_2}} \dots)(K) \right) \right. \\
 &\quad \left. + \mu \left((\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i'_m+1} \circ \mathcal{S}_{\alpha_{j_1}} \circ \mathcal{S}_{\alpha_{j_2}} \dots)(K) \right) \right] \\
 &= \mu \left(\bigcup_{n \geq 0} (\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_m+1} \circ \mathcal{S}_{\alpha_{j_n}} \circ \dots)(K) \right) \\
 &\quad + \mu \left(\bigcup_{n \geq 0} (\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i'_m+1} \circ \mathcal{S}_{\alpha_{j_n}} \circ \dots)(K) \right) \\
 &= \mu \left((\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i_m+1})(K) \right) + \mu \left((\mathcal{S}_{i_1} \circ \dots \circ \mathcal{S}_{i'_m+1})(K) \right) \\
 &= 2 \cdot 5^{-(m+1)}.
 \end{aligned}$$

and the result follow thereafter □

2.3 And back again

We will now construct the Dirichlet Laplacian, and we will be following [BC22a] and [FS92] very closely when defining the Dirichlet Laplacian. This will be done through Dirichlet forms, thus we will be defining them. Before defining Dirichlet forms we have that since the Dirichlet Laplacian will be a densely defined operator we will therefore start by recalling some definitions for a densely defined operator on a Hilbert space.

Definition 2.18: Let $\mathcal{H}$ be a Hilbert space and let $A : \text{dom } A \rightarrow \mathcal{H}$ be a densely defined operator. Then we say A is the following:

- (i) A is said to be symmetric if for $f, g \in \text{dom } A$

$$\langle Af, g \rangle = \langle f, Ag \rangle.$$

- (ii) A is said to be non-negative (resp. non-positive) if for $f \in \text{dom } A$

$$\langle Af, f \rangle \geq 0, \quad (\text{resp. } \langle Af, f \rangle \leq 0)$$

- (iii) A is said to be self-adjoint if $\text{dom } A^* = \text{dom } A$ where A^* is the adjoint of A , on the domain

$$\text{dom } A^* = \left\{ f \in \mathcal{H} : \exists c(f) \geq 0, \forall g \in \mathcal{D}(A), |\langle f, Ag \rangle| \leq c(f) \|g\| \right\}$$

where $c(f)$ denotes that the constant may depend on f . We can further define A^* by the formula

$$\langle A^* f, g \rangle = \langle f, Ag \rangle, \quad \text{for } f \in \text{dom } A^*, g \in \text{dom } A$$

Definition 2.19: (i) A quadratic form $\mathcal{E}$ on $\mathcal{H}$ is a non-negative, definite, symmetric bilinear form from $\text{dom } \mathcal{E} \times \text{dom } \mathcal{E} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, where $\text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ is a dense subspace of $\mathcal{H}$.

- (ii) A quadratic form is said to be closed if $\text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ equipped with the norm

$$\|f\|_{\text{dom } \mathcal{E}}^2 = \|f\|^2 + \mathcal{E}(f, f)$$

is a Hilbert space.

- (iii) A quadratic form $\mathcal{E}$ on $\mathcal{H}$ is said to be closable if it admits a closed extension. That is there exists a closed quadratic form $\bar{\mathcal{E}}$ such $\text{dom } \mathcal{E} \subset \text{dom } \bar{\mathcal{E}}$ and $\bar{\mathcal{E}}$ coincides with $\mathcal{E}$ on $\text{dom } \mathcal{E} \times \text{dom } \mathcal{E}$

- (iv) We further call a quadratic form $\mathcal{E}$ a Dirichlet form if it has the following property. If given $u, v \in \text{dom } \mathcal{E}$ so that for almost every $x, y \in K$ we have

$$|v(x) - v(y)| \leq |u(x) - u(y)|, \quad \text{and} \quad |v(x)| \leq |u(x)|$$

then

$$\mathcal{E}(v, v) \leq \mathcal{E}(u, u).$$

Now recall from definition 2.8 that

$$\mathcal{E}(f, f) = \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \mathcal{E}_m(f, f)$$

with domain $\text{dom}_0 \mathcal{E}$ where

$$\mathcal{E}_m(f, f) = \sum_{\substack{x \sim y \\ m}} (f(x) - f(y))^2$$

By [FS92, theorem 4.1] we have that $(\mathcal{E}, \text{dom}_0 \mathcal{E})$ is a Dirichlet form on $L^2(K, \mu)$. Then by [Bau25, Lemma 1.3.3] we have that

$$\mathcal{E}(f, f) = - \int_K \Delta f g \, d\mu$$

where Δ a unique unique densely defined self-adjoint operator. The operator Δ is called the generator of $\mathcal{E}$. Moreover we have that Δ is an extension of the Kigami Laplacian Δ_μ . The operator Δ with domain $\text{dom } \Delta$ is referred to as the Dirichlet Laplacian.

One will notice that the Kigami Laplacian Δ_μ was not used in the construction of the Dirichlet Laplacian Δ , but we only used the limit of the renormalized graph energy from definition 2.8. This stems from the fact that there are two ways to define Δ , one through Dirichlet forms and one through Δ_μ . We have chosen to define Δ through Dirichlet forms, but defining Δ through Δ_μ would follow a similarly condensed argument. One would prove that $\Delta_\mu : \text{dom } \Delta_\mu \rightarrow L^2(K, \mu)$ is a densely defined non-positive symmetric operator, it then follows from [Bau25, Lemma 1.3.5] that the quadratic form $\mathcal{E}(f, g) = -\langle f, \Delta_\mu g \rangle$ for $f, g \in \text{dom } \Delta_\mu$ is closable and the generator of $\mathcal{E}$ is the self-adjoint extension Δ .

2.4 Discrete Fractional Gaussian Fields

Recalling remark 2.2 then we consider the eigenvalues $0 < \lambda_1^m \leq \lambda_2^m \leq \dots \leq \lambda_{N_m}^m$ (each being repeated accordingly to multiplicity) of $-\Delta_m$. Next let $(\Phi_i^m)_{1 \leq i \leq N_m}$ be the corresponding eigenfunctions with respect to the measure μ_m . This leads us to defining the following.

Definition 2.20: Let $s \geq 0$ we define the *discrete Riesz kernel* on V_m as

$$G_s^m(x, y) = \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x) \phi_i^m(y), \quad \text{for } x, y \in V_m$$

We can further by construction see that the matrix $(G_s^m(x, y))_{x, y \in V_m}$ is symmetric. It is also positive semi-definite, which follows from

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{i,j=1}^{N_m} a_i a_j G_s^m(x_i, x_j) &= \sum_{i,j=1}^{N_m} a_i a_j \sum_{k=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_k^m)^{-s} \phi_k^m(x_i) \phi_k^m(x_j) \\ &= \sum_{k=1}^{N_m} \lambda_k^{-s} \left(\sum_{i=1}^{N_m} \phi_k(x_i)^2 a_i^2 + \sum_{i,j=1, i \neq j}^{N_m} \phi_k(x_i) \phi_k(x_j) a_i a_j \right) \\ &= \sum_{k=1}^{N_m} \lambda_k^{-s} \left(\sum_{i=1}^{N_m} \phi_k(x_i) a_i \right)^2 \geq 0 \end{aligned}$$

Thus it can be the covariance matrix of a Gaussian vector. The Riesz kernel will allow us to define another Laplacian.

Definition 2.21: For $f \in \ell(V_m)$ and $s \geq 0$, the discrete fractional Laplacian $(-\Delta_m)^s : L^2(V_m, \mu_m) \rightarrow L^2(V_m, \mu_m)$ is defined by

$$(-\Delta_m)^{-s} f(x) = \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{y \in V_m} G_s^m(x, y) f(y) = \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x) \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{y \in V_m} \phi_i^m(y) f(y).$$

Remark: Note that $\frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{y \in V_m} \phi_i^m(y) f(y) = \langle \phi_j^m, f \rangle_{L^2(V_m, \mu_m)}$ and therefore that $(-\Delta_m)^{-s} f(x) = \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x) \langle \phi_j^m, f \rangle_{L^2(V_m, \mu_m)}$

Having stated the discrete fractional Laplacian we move on to proving some useful properties of the discrete fractional Laplacian.

Proposition 2.22:

- (i) $(-\Delta_m)^{-s}$ is a uniformly bounded operator
- (ii) $(-\Delta_m)^{-s}$ is a symmetric operator.

Proof. Here $\|\cdot\| = \|\cdot\|_{L^2(V_m, \mu_m)}$ and $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle = \langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle_{L^2(V_m, \mu_m)}$. We start with (i). We have

$$\begin{aligned} \|(-\Delta_m)^{-s} f(x)\| &\leq \left\| \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x) \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{y \in V_m} \phi_i^m(y) f(y) \right\| \\ &\leq \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \frac{1}{a_m} \left\| \phi_i^m(x) \sum_{y \in V_m} \phi_i^m(y) f(y) \right\| \\ &\leq (\lambda_1^m)^{-s} \|f\| \end{aligned}$$

where the last inequality comes from the fact that $0 < \lambda_1 < \lambda_2 < \dots$. The uniform bound comes from the fact that $\inf_m \lambda_1^m > 0$. This follows from [FS92, lemma 5.2], since if $\inf_m \lambda_1^m \leq 0$ the series in the lemma would not converge.

Moving on to (ii), we have that

$$\begin{aligned} \langle f, (-\Delta_m)^{-s} g \rangle &= \int_{V_m} f(-\Delta_m)^{-s} g \, d\mu_m(x) \\ &= \int_{V_m} f(x) \cdot \left(\sum_{i,j=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \phi_j^m(x) \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{y \in V_m} \phi_i^m(y) g(y) \right) d\mu(x) \\ &= \sum_{j=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_j^m)^{-s} \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{y \in V_m} \phi_j^m(y) g(y) \int_{V_m} \left(\sum_{i=1}^{N_m} \phi_i^m(x) \langle \phi_i^m, f \rangle \right) \phi_j^m(x) d\mu_m(x) \\ &= \sum_{j=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_j^m)^{-s} \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{y \in V_m} \phi_j^m(y) g(y) \int_{V_m} \phi_j^m(x) \langle \phi_j^m, f \rangle \phi_j^m(x) d\mu_m(x) \\ &= \sum_{j=1}^{N_m} \left[\int_{V_m} \left((\lambda_j^m)^{-s} \phi_j(x) \langle \phi_j^m, f \rangle \right) \phi_j^m(x) \langle \phi_j^m, g \rangle d\mu_m(x) \right. \\ &\quad \left. + \int_{V_m} \left((\lambda_j^m)^{-s} \phi_j^m(x) \langle \phi_j^m, f \rangle \right) \left(\sum_{i=1, i \neq j}^{N_m} \phi_i^m(x) \langle \phi_i^m, g \rangle \right) d\mu_m(x) \right] \\ &= \int_{V_m} (-\Delta_m)^{-s} f g \, d\mu_m(x) \\ &= \langle (-\Delta_m)^{-s} f, g \rangle \end{aligned}$$

using that $f = \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} \phi_i \langle \phi_i, f \rangle$ and $\int_{V_m} \phi_i \phi_j \, d\mu_m$ is 1 if $j = i$ and 0 if $i \neq j$. □

2.5 Semi-groups and Heat kernels

When stating the Fractional Laplacian one use that it admits a heat kernel through a semigroup generated by $-\Delta$. We will therefore first define a semigroup along with showing that $-\Delta$ generates a semigroup and define the heat kernel.

Definition 2.23: Let $\mathcal{H}$ be a Hilbert space. A strongly continuous self-adjoint contraction semigroup is a family of self-adjoint operators $(P_t)_{t \geq 0} : \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathcal{H}$

- (i) For $s, t \geq 0$, $P_t \circ P_s = P_{s+t}$ (semi-group property).
- (ii) For every $f \in \mathcal{H}$, $\lim_{t \rightarrow 0} P_t f = f$ (strong continuity).
- (iii) For every $f \in \mathcal{H}$ and $t \geq 0$, $\|P_t f\| \leq \|f\|$ (contraction property).

The next theorem also holds if we are given $(P_t)_{t \geq 0}$ as a strongly continuous self-adjoint contraction semigroup, then there exists a self-adjoint, non-positive and densely defined operator that generates $(P_t)_{t \geq 0}$, but we only need the operator to generate the semi-group.

Theorem 2.24: If A is a densely defined self adjoint operator on $\mathcal{H}$ then it is the generator of the strongly continuous self-adjoint contraction semigroup on $\mathcal{H}$ defined as $P_t = e^{-tA}$.

Proof. Let A be given as stated. Then from the spectral theorem [Bau25, theorem 1.1.2] and there is a measure space (Ω, ν) and a unitary map $U : L^2(\Omega, \nu) \rightarrow \mathcal{H}$ and a non negative real valued measurable function λ on Ω such that

$$U^{-1} A U f(x) = -\lambda(x) f(x)$$

for $x \in \Omega, Uf \in \text{dom } A$. Then from the functional calculus [Bau25, theorem 1.1.3] we define $P_t : \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathcal{H}$ such that

$$U^{-1} P_t U f(x) = e^{-t\lambda(x)} f(x).$$

Note that since U is a unitary map it is a linear bijection that satisfies for all $x, y \in L^2(\Omega, \nu)$ that $\langle Ux, Uy \rangle_{\mathcal{H}} = \langle x, y \rangle_{L^2(\Omega, \nu)}$.

Now it is enough to show that $Q_t = U^{-1} P_t U$ is self-adjoint, since then P_t will be self adjoint. This can be proven quite easily. So if we have the functions $f, g \in \mathcal{H}$ and $\psi, \phi \in L^2(\Omega, \nu)$ then we have P_t is symmetric since

$$\begin{aligned} \langle Af, g \rangle_{\mathcal{H}} &= \langle AU\psi, U\phi \rangle_{\mathcal{H}} = \langle UU^{-1}UAU\psi, UU^{-1}U\phi \rangle_{\mathcal{H}} = \langle U^{-1}AU\psi, \phi \rangle_{L^2(\Omega, \nu)} \\ &= \langle \psi, U^{-1}AU\phi \rangle_{L^2(\Omega, \nu)} = \langle U\psi, UU^{-1}AU\phi \rangle_{\mathcal{H}} = \langle f, Ag \rangle_{\mathcal{H}} \end{aligned}$$

That $\text{dom } P_t^* = \text{dom } P_t$ is the exact same argument as in equation 2.5, which will be given later in the proof.

So we will prove that $Q_t = U^{-1} P_t U$ with domain $\text{dom } Q_t$ is a self-adjoint strongly continuous contraction semigroup on $L^2(\Omega, \nu)$ with generator A . Starting with generator, we see that for $f \in \text{dom } A$

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \left\| \frac{Q_t f - f}{t} - Af \right\| &= \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \sqrt{\left\langle \frac{Q_t f - f}{t} - Af, \frac{Q_t f - f}{t} - Af \right\rangle} \\ &= \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \sqrt{\left\langle \frac{Q_t f - f}{t}, \frac{Q_t f - f}{t} - Af \right\rangle - \left\langle Af, \frac{Q_t f - f}{t} - Af \right\rangle} \\ &\leq \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \sqrt{\left\langle \frac{Q_t f - f}{t}, \frac{Q_t f - f}{t} - Af \right\rangle} \\ &= \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \sqrt{\int_{\Omega} \left(\frac{Q_t f - f}{t} \right) \left(\frac{Q_t f - f}{t} - Af \right) d\nu} \\ &= \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \sqrt{\int_{\Omega} \left(\frac{(e^{-\lambda t} - 1)f}{t} \right) \left(\frac{Q_t f - f}{t} - Af \right) d\nu} \\ &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

where the convergence comes from the fact that $e^{-\lambda t}$ converges to 1 much faster than $1/t$ diverges to ∞ . Thus A is a generator.

Next we have that Q_t is self-adjoint, for which we start with symmetry

$$\langle Q_t f, g \rangle = \int_{\Omega} Q_t f g \, d\nu = \int_{\Omega} e^{-\lambda t} f g \, d\nu = \langle f, Q_t g \rangle.$$

Next we have that $\text{dom } Q_t$ is dense in $L^2(\Omega, \nu)$ since if $f_n \rightarrow f$ in $L^2(\Omega, \nu)$ and $Q_t f_n \rightarrow g$ then

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} Q_t f_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} e^{-\lambda t} f_n = e^{-\lambda t} f = Q_t f.$$

Now showing that $\text{dom } Q_t^* = \text{dom } Q_t$. Since Q_t is symmetric we have from Cauchy-Schwartz inequality that

$$|\langle f, Q_t g \rangle| = |\langle Q_t f, g \rangle| \leq \|Q_t f\| \|g\|. \quad (2.5)$$

Thus we have Q_t is self-adjoint. To show the semigroup properties, we have (i)

$$Q_{t+s} f = e^{-\lambda(t+s)} f = e^{-\lambda t} e^{-\lambda s} f = Q_t Q_s f$$

further for (ii) we have

$$\lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} Q_t f = \lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} e^{-t\lambda} f = f$$

and lastly (iii)

$$\|Q_t f\|^2 = \int_{\Omega} (e^{-\lambda t} f)^2 \, d\nu \leq \int_{\Omega} f^2 \, d\nu = \|f\|^2.$$

Thus we have that Q_t is a self-adjoint strongly continuous contraction semigroup on $L^2(\Omega, \nu)$ with generator A . $\square$

With semigroups out of the way we can define the heat kernel.

Definition 2.25: Let $(P_t)_{t \geq 0}$ be a strongly continuous self-adjoint contraction semigroup on $L^2(X, \mu)$. We say that the semigroup $(P_t)_{t \geq 0}$ admits a heat kernel if the heat kernel measure have a density with respect to μ , i.e. there exists a measurable function $p : \mathbb{R}_{>0} \times X \times X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$ such that for every $t > 0$, almost everywhere we have

$$P_t f(x) = \int_K p_t(x, y) f(y) \, d\mu(y)$$

with $x, y \in X, f \in L^\infty(X, \mu)$.

2.6 Fractional Laplacian

Before we can define the continuous fractional Laplacian, we need to define the eigenvalues and eigenfunctions for $-\Delta$.

Recall that the Laplacian Δ with domain $\mathcal{D}(\Delta)$ is a densely defined self-adjoint operator. Therefore by theorem 2.24 it is the generator of a strongly continuous Markov semigroup $\{P_t\}_{t \geq 0}$ on $L^2(K, \mu)$.

Form [Mar98, Lemma] this semigroup admits a heat kernel $p_t(x, y), t > 0, x, y \in \bar{K}$, wrt. the normalized Hausdorff measure μ . The heat kernel $p_t(x, y)$ is called the Dirichlet heat kernel on K . Further from [BC22a, section 2.3] this heat kernel satisfies that for some $c_1, c_2 \in (0, \infty)$

$$p_t(x, y) \leq c_1 t^{-\frac{d_h}{d_w}} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{d(x, y)^{d_w}}{t} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w-1}} \right) \quad (2.6)$$

for every $x, y \in K \times K$ and $t \in (0, \infty)$ where d_h is the Hausdorff dimension and d_w is the walk dimension.

The Dirichlet heat kernel is quite central in the definition of the continuous fractional Laplacian, as its bounds and definition will be used quite a bit throughout the proofs of this next section. One of the more important properties of the heat kernel is that it can be described as a sum of eigenvalues and eigenfunctions of Δ . The following theorem gives us the existence of the eigenvalues, functions and the sum representation of the Dirichlet heat kernel. This theorem will not be proved but a detailed proof can be found in [Dod81, Theorem 2.2].

Theorem 2.26: There exists an orthonormal basis $\{\phi_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$ of $L^2(K, \mu)$ with ϕ_j being eigenfunctions of $-\Delta$. If λ_i is the eigenvalue belonging to ϕ_i , then $\lambda_i > 0$ and $\lim_{i \rightarrow \infty} \lambda_i = \infty$. Moreover

$$p_t(x, y) = \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} e^{-\lambda_j t} \phi_j(x) \phi_j(y)$$

where the convergence is uniform for all $t \in (0, \infty)$ and $x, y \in K \times K$

The eigenvalues cannot only be used to represent the heat kernel but will also be used to represent the fractional Laplacian, and the following lemma gives us an idea of what parameter values gives convergence.

Lemma 2.27: Let $0 < \lambda_1 \leq \lambda_2 < \dots$ be the eigenvalues of $-\Delta$

$$\sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^{2s}} < \infty. \iff s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$$

Proof. This follows from [Kig01, lemma 5.1.3] which states that there exists a constant $c_1, c_2 > 0$ such that

$$c_1 \cdot n^{2/d_s} \leq \lambda_n \leq c_2 \cdot n^{2/d_s} \quad (2.7)$$

Assume $s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$ then by (2.7)

$$\sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^{2s}} \leq \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{(c_1 n^{2/d_s})^{2s}} < \infty$$

since

$$\frac{4s}{d_s} > \frac{2d_h}{d_w} = 1$$

the series is convergent.

Assume now that

$$\sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^{2s}} < \infty.$$

then again by (2.7) we have that

$$\sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{(c_2 n^{2/d_s})^{2s}} \leq \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^{2s}} < \infty$$

and the left sum only converges if $4s/d_s > 1$ in which case $s > d_s/4 = d_h/2d_w$ as desired. $\square$

Thus we are ready to define the fractional Laplacian.

Definition 2.28: Let $s \geq 0$, for $f \in L^2(K, \mu)$ the fractional Laplacian $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ is defined as

$$(-\Delta)^{-s} f = \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \int_K \phi_j(y) f(y) \, d\mu(y)$$

Remark: Once again we notice that $\langle \phi_i, f \rangle = \int_K \phi_i f \, d\mu$, and can rewrite $(-\Delta)^{-s} f = \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, f \rangle$.

Now that we have the fractional Laplacian defined we will show some of its very useful properties.

Proposition 2.29: Let $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ be defined as in definition 2.28 then:

- (i) $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ is a linear operator.
- (ii) If ϕ_n be an orthonormal eigenfunction, then $(-\Delta)^{-s} \phi_n = \frac{1}{\lambda_n^s} \phi_n$.
- (iii) $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ is a bounded operator.
- (iv) $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ is a symmetric operator.

Proof. We start with the proof of (i) Let $f, g \in L^2(K, \mu)$ and α some constant, then by definition of $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ we have

$$\begin{aligned} (-\Delta)^{-s}(\alpha f + g) &= \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \int_K \phi_j(y) (\alpha f(y) + g(y)) \, d\mu(y) \\ &= \alpha \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \int_K \phi_j(y) f(y) \, d\mu(y) + \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \int_K \phi_j(y) g(y) \, d\mu(y) \\ &= \alpha (-\Delta)^{-s} f + (-\Delta)^{-s} g \end{aligned}$$

Moving on to (ii). We note that since

$$\int_K \phi_j \phi_i \, d\mu = \delta_{ij}$$

where δ_{ij} is the Kronecker delta. So for any eigenfunction ϕ_n we have

$$(-\Delta)^{-s} \phi_n = \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \int_K \phi_j(y) \phi_n(y) \, d\mu(y) = \frac{1}{\lambda_n^s} \phi_n.$$

Next we have (iii). This follows from

$$\begin{aligned} \|(-\Delta)^{-s} f\|^2 &= \left\| \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, f \rangle \right\|^2 \\ &= \left\langle \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, f \rangle, \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, f \rangle \right\rangle \\ &= \sum_j \left| \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \langle \phi_j, f \rangle \right|^2 \langle \phi_j, \phi_j \rangle \\ &\leq \left(\frac{1}{\lambda_1^s} \right)^2 \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} |\langle \phi_j, f \rangle|^2 \\ &= \left(\frac{1}{\lambda_1^s} \right)^2 \|f\|^2 \end{aligned}$$

in which case we have our bound. Lastly we will show (iv)

$$\begin{aligned}
 \langle (-\Delta)^{-s} f, g \rangle &= \int_K \left(\sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, f \rangle \right) g \, d\mu \\
 &= \int_K \left(\sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, f \rangle \right) \left(\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \phi_i \langle \phi_i, g \rangle \right) d\mu \\
 &= \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \int_K \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, f \rangle \left(\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \phi_i \langle \phi_i, g \rangle \right) d\mu \\
 &= \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \int_K \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j^2 \langle \phi_j, f \rangle \langle \phi_j, g \rangle d\mu \\
 &= \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \left[\int_K \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, f \rangle \phi_j \langle \phi_j, g \rangle d\mu + \int_K \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, g \rangle \left(\sum_{i=1, i \neq j}^{\infty} \phi_i \langle \phi_i, f \rangle \right) d\mu \right] \\
 &= \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \int_K \left(\frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, g \rangle \right) \left(\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \phi_i \langle \phi_i, f \rangle \right) d\mu \\
 &= \int_K \left(\sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j \langle \phi_j, g \rangle \right) f \, d\mu \\
 &= \langle f, (-\Delta)^s g \rangle
 \end{aligned}$$

as desired. $\square$

While the definition of the fractional Laplacian is not the most complicated, we are still able to represent $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ in another way, namely with the Riesz kernel.

Definition 2.30: For parameter $s \geq 0$ we define the fractional Riesz kernel G_s by

$$G_s(x, y) = \frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_0^\infty t^{s-1} p_t(x, y) \, dt, \quad x, y \in K, x \neq y$$

where Γ denotes the gamma function.

Remark: Note that it follows from (2.6) that $G_s(x, y)$ actually converges for every $s \geq 0$ where $x \neq y$.

The Riesz kernel will allow us to use the estimates of the heat kernel $p_t(x, y)$ in conjunction with $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ as we shall shortly see. We will start by showing some of the bounds of the fractional Riesz kernel.

Proposition 2.31: 1. If $s \in [0, d_h/d_w)$, there exists a constant $C > 0$ such that for every $x, y \in K, x \neq y$

$$G_s(x, y) \leq \frac{C}{d(x, y)^{d_h - s d_w}}$$

2. If $s = d_h/d_w$, there exists a constant $C > 0$ such that for every $x, y \in K, x \neq y$

$$G_s(x, y) \leq C |\ln d(x, y)|$$

3. If $s > d_h/d_w$, there exists a constant $C > 0$ such that for every $x, y \in K$

$$G_s(x, y) \leq C$$

Before stating this proof we will quickly state and prove a lemma needed.

Lemma 2.32: There exists a constant $C > 0$ such that for every $x, y \in K$ and $t \geq 1$,

$$|p_t(x, y)| \leq Ce^{-\lambda_1 t}$$

where $\lambda_1 > 0$ is the first non-zero eigenvalue of $-\Delta$.

Proof. We have from theorem 2.26 that $p_t(x, y)$ has the expansion

$$p_t(x, y) = \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} e^{-\lambda_j t} \phi_j(x) \phi_j(y). \quad (2.8)$$

Since ϕ_j are eigenvalues, we have from definition of p_t , that for any $t > 0$ that

$$\phi_j(x) = e^{\lambda_j t} \int_K p_t(x, y) \phi_j(y) \, d\mu(y).$$

then from Cauchy-Schwarz inequality, we have for every $t > 0$

$$|\phi_j(x)| \leq e^{\lambda_j t} \left(\int_K p_t(x, y)^2 \, d\mu(y) \right)^{\frac{1}{2}} \left(\int_K \phi_j(y)^2 \, d\mu(y) \right)^{\frac{1}{2}} = e^{\lambda_j t} p_{2t}(x, x)^{1/2}$$

where the last equality comes from the fact that $\int_K \phi_i(y) \phi_j(y) \, d\mu = \delta_{ij}$ so $\int_K \phi_j(y)^2 \, d\mu(y) = 1$. That combined with (2.8) gives us $\int_K p_t(x, y)^2 \, d\mu(y) = \int_K p_{2t}(x, y) \, d\mu(y)$ which gives us the equality.

Now choosing $t = 1/4$ we get along with (2.6) that there is a constant $C > 0$ so for every $x \in K$ we have

$$|\phi_j| \leq Ce^{\lambda_j/4}.$$

Returning to (2.8) we get for every $x, y \in K$ and $t \geq 1$ that

$$\begin{aligned} |p_t(x, y)| &\leq \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} e^{-\lambda_j t} |\phi_j(x)| |\phi_j(y)| \\ &\leq C^2 \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} e^{-\lambda_j t} e^{\lambda_j/2} \\ &= C^2 \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} e^{-\lambda_j t} e^{\lambda_j/2} e^{\lambda_j} e^{-\lambda_j} \\ &\leq C^2 e^{-\lambda_1 t} e^{\lambda_1} \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} e^{-\lambda_j/2} \end{aligned}$$

here the last inequality comes from the fact that $0 < \lambda_1 < \lambda_2 < \dots$ and $t \geq 1$ so $e^{\lambda_j(1-t)} \leq e^{\lambda_1(1-t)}$. Thus we have the desired bound. $\square$

Proof of proposition 2.31. We have that

$$\begin{aligned} G_s(x, y) &= \frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_0^{\infty} t^{s-1} p_t(x, y) \, dt \\ &= \frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_0^1 t^{s-1} p_t(x, y) \, dt + \frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_1^{\infty} t^{s-1} p_t(x, y) \, dt \end{aligned}$$

The integral $\frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_1^{\infty} t^{s-1} p_t(x, y) \, dt$ can be uniformly bounded by a constant using lemma 2.32. Thus we only need to bound the integral $\int_0^1 t^{s-1} p_t(x, y) \, dt$. By (2.6) we have that

$$\int_0^1 t^{s-1} p_t(x, y) \, dt \leq c_1 \int_0^1 t^{s-1-\frac{d_h}{d_w}} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{d(x, y)^{d_w}}{t} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w-1}} \right) \, dt.$$

Since the bound of the integral relies on the value of s we will split it up into the cases of the proposition.

Let $s > d_h/d_w$ then we simply have

$$\int_0^1 t^{s-1-\frac{d_h}{d_w}} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{d(x,y)^{d_w}}{t} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w-1}} \right) dt \leq \int_0^1 t^{s-1-\frac{d_h}{d_w}} dt.$$

Next if $s < d_h/d_w$, then using a change of variable $t = ud(x,y)^{d_w}$, we find that

$$\begin{aligned} & \int_0^1 t^{s-1-\frac{d_h}{d_w}} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{d(x,y)^{d_w}}{t} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w-1}} \right) dt \\ &= d(x,y)^{sd_w-d_h} \int_0^{\frac{1}{d(x,y)^{d_w}}} u^{s-1-\frac{d_h}{d_w}} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{1}{u} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w+1}} \right) du \\ &\leq d(x,y)^{sd_w-d_h} \int_0^\infty u^{s-1-\frac{d_h}{d_w}} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{1}{u} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w+1}} \right) du. \end{aligned}$$

convergence of the last integral comes from the fact that $e^{-c_2(1/u)^{1/d_w}}$ converges faster than $1/u$ diverges. Lastly for $s = d_h/d_w$, we again use the change of variable $t = ud(x,y)^{d_w}$ and setting $R = \text{diam}(K)$ and note that $0 < 1/R^{d_w} < 1/d(x,y)^{d_w}$, thus we find

$$\begin{aligned} & \int_0^1 t^{s-1-\frac{d_h}{d_w}} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{d(x,y)^{d_w}}{t} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w-1}} \right) dt \\ &= \int_0^{\frac{1}{d(x,y)^{d_w}}} u^{-1} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{1}{u} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w+1}} \right) du \\ &\leq \int_{\frac{1}{R^{d_w}}}^{\frac{1}{d(x,y)^{d_w}}} u^{-1} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{1}{u} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w+1}} \right) du + \int_0^{\frac{1}{R^{d_w}}} u^{-1} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{1}{u} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w+1}} \right) du \\ &\leq \int_{\frac{1}{R^{d_w}}}^{\frac{1}{d(x,y)^{d_w}}} u^{-1} du + \int_0^{\frac{1}{R^{d_w}}} u^{-1} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{1}{u} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w+1}} \right) du \\ &\leq d_w |\ln d(x,y)| + \int_0^{\frac{1}{R^{d_w}}} u^{-1} \exp \left(-c_2 \left(\frac{1}{u} \right)^{\frac{1}{d_w+1}} \right) du \\ &\leq C |\ln d(x,y)|. \end{aligned}$$

Thus we have our desired bounds. $\square$

2.7 Bounds of the fractional Laplacian

In the following we will prove some bounds for the fractional Laplacian. Since the goal of this thesis is to prove convergence of fractional Gaussian fields within a specific space of test functions, we will only be proving the lemmas for that space. The space of functions is given by

Definition 2.33: We consider the following space of test functions

$$S(K) = \left\{ f \in C_0(K) : \forall k \geq 0 \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} n^k \left| \int_K \phi_n(y) f(y) d\mu(y) \right| = 0 \right\}$$

We consider this space with the topology defined by the family of norms

$$\|f\|_k = \left\| (-\Delta)^{-k} f \right\|_{L^2(K, \mu)}.$$

By [Pie66, Theorem 2] and lemma 2.27 we have that $S(K)$ is a Fréchet Nuclear space. That a space is *Fréchet* means that it is nuclear and the topology is given på a countable family of semi-norms. We will quickly define a nuclear space, but will not delve into the subject matter. The following definition is from [Trè67, Chapter 50].

Definition 2.34: Let E be a locally convex Hausdorff space and $\|\cdot\|_p$ a continuous semi-norm on E . Further let $\hat{E}_p$ a Banach space defined to be the completion of the normed space $E \setminus \ker \|\cdot\|_p$. Then E is a *nuclear space* if to every continuous semi-norm $\|\cdot\|_p$ on E there exists another continuous semi-norm on E with $\|\cdot\|_q \geq \|\cdot\|_p$ such that the canonical mapping $\hat{E}_p \rightarrow \hat{E}_q$ is *nuclear*.

A mapping $u : E \rightarrow F$, where E, F are Banach spaces, is *nuclear* if there is a sequence in the closed unit ball of E' , $\{x'_k\}$, a sequence in the closed unit ball of F , $\{y_k\}$ and a complex sequence $\{\lambda_k\}$ with $\sum_k |\lambda_k| < \infty$ such that $u(x) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda_i x'_i(x) y_i$ for all $x \in X$. Furthermore, the trace-norm $\|u\|_{\text{Tr}}$ is equal to the infimum of the numbers $\sum_k |\lambda_k|$ over the set of all representations of u as such a series.

Remark: We have just defined a nuclear map on a Banach spaces, but do note that the definition can be generalized to locally convex Hausdorff spaces.

As we can see the concepts of a nuclear spaces is quite complicated, but its properties will be very useful. It will allow us to prove convergence of Gaussian fields through the characteristics function and existence of Fractional Gaussian fields through Bochner-Minlos theorem for nuclear spaces, which we will state later in theorem 3.5. But first we will prove some lemmas regarding the fractional Laplacian and the fractional Riesz kernel.

Lemma 2.35: Let $s > 0$. For $f \in S(K)$ and $x \in K$

$$(-\Delta)^{-s} f = \int_K G_s(x, y) f(y) \, d\mu(y)$$

Proof. We will first make sure the integral on the right side actually converges. But this holds because $S(K) \subset C(K)$ so f will be bounded on K . Thus we just need that for every $x \in K$ $\int_K G_s(x, y) \, d\mu(y)$ is convergent.¹ For $s \in (d_h/d_w, \infty)$ the convergence follows from proposition 2.31. Looking at $s \in (0, d_h/d_w]$ then first we note that $\ln(x) \leq x^{-1}$ and $x^{d_h - s d_w} \leq x^{-d_h}$ for all $0 < x \leq 1$. We will now use a dyadic annuli decomposition, so we see that

$$K \subseteq \cup_{j \geq 0} B(x, R2^{-j}) \setminus B(x, RS^{-j-1})$$

where $R = \text{diam}(K)$. Then we have for all $y \in B(x, R2^{-j}) \setminus B(x, RS^{-j-1})$:

$$R2^{-j-1} \leq d(x, y) \leq R2^{-j-1} \Rightarrow 2^{-j-1} \leq R^{-1} \cdot d(x, y) \leq 2^{-j-1}.$$

so therefore

$$\ln(R^{-1}d(x, y)) \leq \frac{R}{d(x, y)}$$

This leads to the fact that for $s = d_h/d_w$ we have

$$\begin{aligned} \int_K G_s^m(x, y) \, d\mu(y) &\leq \int_K R \cdot C_1 \left| R^{-1} \ln d(x, y) \right| \, d\mu(y) + \int_K C_1 \cdot \ln R \, d\mu \\ &\leq \ln R + \sum_{j=0}^{\infty} \int_{B(x, R2^{-j}) \setminus B(x, RS^{-j-1})} R \cdot C_1 \left| \ln d(x, y) \right| \, d\mu(y) \\ &\leq \sum_{j=0}^{\infty} \int_{B(x, R2^{-j}) \setminus B(x, RS^{-j-1})} \frac{R \cdot C_1}{den} \end{aligned}$$

In which case we denote $R = \text{diam}(K)$ If we recall proposition 1.14 we can

$$\int_K G_s(x, y) \, d\mu(y) \leq \int_K \frac{1}{d(x, y)^{d_h - s d_w}} \, d\mu(y) < \infty$$

which follows from the Alfons regular Hausdorff measure why???? Choosing r so the ball $B(x, r) \supset d(x, y)^{d_h - s d_w}$? But then how does this relate to $\mu(B(x, r))$.

¹In proposition 2.31, (i) and (ii) the bounds are for $x \neq y$, but they are null-set wrt. μ

Now using Fubini's theorem, theorem 2.26 and the definition of G_s we get

$$\begin{aligned}
 \int_K G_s(x, y) f(y) \, d\mu(y) &= \int_K \frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_0^\infty t^{s-1} p_t(x, y) \, dt f(y) \, d\mu(y) \\
 &= \int_K \frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_0^\infty t^{s-1} \sum_{j=1}^\infty e^{-\lambda_j t} \phi_j(x) \phi_j(y) \, dt f(y) \, d\mu(y) \\
 &= \sum_{j=1}^\infty \phi_j(x) \int_K \phi_j(y) f(y) \frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_0^\infty t^{s-1} e^{-\lambda_j t} \, dt \, d\mu(y) \\
 &= \sum_{j=1}^\infty \frac{1}{\lambda_j^s} \phi_j(x) \int_K \phi_j(y) f(y) \, d\mu(y) \\
 &= (-\Delta)^{-s} f
 \end{aligned}$$

where we use that $\frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_0^\infty t^{s-1} e^{-\lambda_j t} \, dt = -\lambda_j^{-s}$. This follows from if we use the substitution $u = \lambda_j t$ we get

$$\frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_0^\infty t^{s-1} e^{-\lambda_j t} \, dt = \frac{1}{\Gamma(s) \cdot \lambda_j^s} \int_0^\infty u^{s-1} e^{-u} \, du = \frac{1}{\Gamma(s) \lambda_j^s} \Gamma(s) = \lambda_j^{-s}.$$

□

An immediate corollary follows:

Corollary 2.36: Let $s > 0$, for $f, g \in S(K)$

$$\int_K (-\Delta)^{-s} f (-\Delta)^{-s} g \, d\mu = \int_K \int_K f(x) g(y) G_{2s}(x, y) \, d\mu(x) \, d\mu(y)$$

Proof. Now from the definition of $(-\Delta)^{-s}$, proposition 2.29 and the previous lemma, we find that

$$\begin{aligned}
 \int_K (-\Delta)^{-s} f (-\Delta)^{-s} g \, d\mu &= \langle (-\Delta)^{-s} f, (-\Delta)^{-s} g \rangle \\
 &= \langle f, (-\Delta)^{-2s} g \rangle \\
 &= \int_K f (-\Delta)^{-2s} g \, d\mu \\
 &= \int_K \int_K f(x) g(y) G_{2s}(x, y) \, d\mu(x) \, d\mu(y)
 \end{aligned}$$

□

Chapter 3

Fractional Gaussian Fields

In this chapter we will be constructing the fractional Gaussian fields, that we will later see converge. The construction of the fractional Gaussian fields very much depends on the Riesz kernel and the Dirichlet Laplacian.

We will also give an example of an discrete fractional Gaussian field, which we will later see in some simulations.

3.1 Discrete fractional Gaussian fields

Definition 3.1: Let $s \geq 0$, then a *discrete fractional Gaussian field* X_s^m with parameter s on V_m is a Gaussian vector indexed by V_m with mean zero and covariance matrix $\Sigma = (G_{2s}^m(x, y))_{x, y \in V_m}$

For any $f \in \ell(V_m)$ we will use the notation

$$X_s^m(f) = \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f(p) X_s^m(p)$$

We can then note that the discrete fractional Gaussian field has the following property

Proposition 3.2: For $f, g \in \ell(V_m)$ we have that

$$\mathbb{E} [X_s^m(f) X_s^m(g)] = \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} (-\Delta_m)^{-s} f(p) (-\Delta_m)^{-s} g(p)$$

Proof. Using proposition 2.22 we find

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E} [X_s^m(f) X_s^m(g)] &= \frac{1}{2a_m} \sum_{p, q \in V_m} f(p) g(q) \mathbb{E} [X_s^m(p) X_s^m(q)] \\ &= \frac{1}{2a_m} \sum_{p, q \in V_m} f(p) g(q) G_{2s}^m(p, q) \\ &= \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f(p) \left(\frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{q \in V_m} g(q) G_{2s}^m(p, q) \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f(p) (-\Delta_m)^{-2s} g(p) \\ &= \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} (-\Delta_m)^{-s} f(p) (-\Delta_m)^{-s} g(p) \end{aligned}$$

□

Example 3.3: Here we will give an example of a discrete fractional Gaussian field. So Let $(W_i)_{1 \leq i \leq N_m}$ be a sequence of i.i.d Gaussian random variables with mean zero and variance one, i.e. white noise. Then define

$$X_s^m(x) = \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x) W_i, \quad x \in V_m.$$

First we check the mean, so

$$\mathbb{E}[X_s^m] = \begin{pmatrix} \mathbb{E}[X_s^m(x_1)] \\ \vdots \\ \mathbb{E}[X_s^m(x_{N_m})] \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

since

$$\mathbb{E}[X_s^m(x_i)] = \mathbb{E}\left[\sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x) W_i\right] = \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x) \mathbb{E}[W_i] = 0.$$

Moving on to the covariance matrix we have that

$$\begin{aligned} \Sigma &= \mathbb{E}\left((X_s^m - \mathbb{E}[X_s^m])((X_s^m)^T - \mathbb{E}[X_s^m]^T)\right) = \\ &= \mathbb{E}\left[X_s^m \cdot (X_s^m)^T\right] = \mathbb{E}\left[\begin{pmatrix} X_s^m(x_1)X_s^m(x_1) & \cdots & X_s^m(x_1)X_s^m(x_{N_m}) \\ \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ X_s^m(x_{N_m})X_s^m(x_1) & \cdots & X_s^m(x_{N_m})X_s^m(x_{N_m}) \end{pmatrix}\right]. \end{aligned}$$

Looking at a single element $\Sigma_{p,q}$ we find

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E}[X_s^m(x_p)X_s^m(x_q)] &= \mathbb{E}\left[\left(\sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x_p) W_i\right) \left(\sum_{j=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_j^m)^{-s} \phi_j^m(x_q) W_j\right)\right] \\ &= \mathbb{E}\left[\sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-2s} \phi_i^m(x_p) \phi_i^m(x_q) W_i^2\right] + \mathbb{E}\left[\sum_{i,j=1, i \neq j}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m \lambda_j^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x_p) \phi_j^m(x_q) W_i W_j\right] \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-2s} \phi_i^m(x_p) \phi_i^m(x_q) \mathbb{E}[W_i^2] + \sum_{i,j=1, i \neq j}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m \lambda_j^m)^{-s} \phi_i^m(x_p) \phi_j^m(x_q) \mathbb{E}[W_i] \mathbb{E}[W_j] \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} (\lambda_i^m)^{-2s} \phi_i^m(x_p) \phi_i^m(x_q) \\ &= G_{2s}^m(x_p, x_q) \end{aligned}$$

using that W_i are independent. Thus X_s^m is a discrete fractional Gaussian field.

3.2 Fractional Gaussian Fields

Definition 3.4: Let $s \geq 0$. A *fractional Gaussian field* X_s with parameter s on K is a centered Gaussian field $\{X_s(f) : f \in S(K)\}$ such that for any $f, g \in S(K)$

$$\mathbb{E}[X_s(f)X_s(g)] = \int_K (-\Delta)^{-s} f(-\Delta)^{-s} g \, d\mu$$

We now quickly move to proving that the fractional Gaussian fields exist. First we will state the Bochner-Minlos theorem for nuclear spaces, since it is needed for the proof of existence. It will be given without proof but one can be found in [Joh03].

Theorem 3.5 (Bochner-Minlos): Assume $\mathcal{X}$ is a nuclear space. Any continuous positive-definite linear functional Λ on $\mathcal{X}$ satisfying $\Lambda(0) = 1$ is the Fourier transform of a countably additive positive normalized measure on $\mathcal{X}'$

We will quickly state and prove a lemma, prove a functional, that we will need, is positive definite.

Lemma 3.6: The functional $\Phi : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined as $\Phi(v) = \exp(-\frac{1}{2}\langle v, v \rangle)$ is positive definite.

Proof. Let $v_1, \dots, v_n$ be elements of $\mathcal{X}$ and choose an orthonormal basis $e_1, \dots, e_m$ of $\text{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_n\}$. Further let $Z = (Z_1, \dots, Z_m)$ be a vector of independent standard normal real random variables, and note that for all $u \in \mathbb{R}^m$ we have that

$$\Phi\left(\sum_{j=1}^m u_j e_j\right) = \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2} \sum_{i=1}^m u_i^2\right) = \mathbb{E}\left[e^{iu \cdot Z}\right].$$

This leads us to for $z \in \mathbb{C}^n$?

$$\sum_{j,k=1}^n z_j \overline{z_k} \Phi(v_j - v_k) = \sum_{j,k=1}^n z_j \overline{z_k} \mathbb{E}\left[e^{i(v_j - v_k) \cdot Z}\right] = \mathbb{E}\left[\left|\sum_{j=1}^n z_j e^{iv_j \cdot Z}\right|^2\right] \geq 0$$

where the last equality □

Theorem 3.7: Let $s \geq 0$, there exists a centered Gaussian distribution X_s on $S'(K)$ such that for $f, g \in S(K)$

$$\mathbb{E}[X_s(f)X_s(g)] = \int_K (-\Delta)^{-s} f (-\Delta)^{-s} g \, d\mu$$

Proof. The space $S(K)$ is a nuclear space why it is enough to use theorem 3.5(Bochner-Minlos) on the functional

$$\Lambda : f \rightarrow \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2} \|f\|_k^2\right).$$

This is enough since theorem 3.5 then gives an unique probability measure ν such

$$\exp\left(-\frac{1}{2} \|f\|_k^2\right) = \int_{S'(K)} e^{i\langle x, f \rangle} \, d\nu(x).$$

Notice that the right side is an characteristic function for some random variable. If we choose $f = t \cdot g$ for some $g \in S(K)$ and $t \in \mathbb{R}$ (note that $t \cdot g \in S(K)$) then the left side of the equation becomes the characteristic function for the normal distribution with mean zero and variance $\|f\|_s^2$. Thus we have the X_s we wanted.

Now to prove that Λ satisfies the requirements of theorem 3.5. Obviously $\Lambda(0) = 1$, and from lemma 3.6 Λ is positive definite. Lastly we need to prove it is continuous at zero.

First we note that since $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ is a bounded operator we have that there exists some constant $C > 0$ so $\|(-\Delta)^{-s} f\|_{L^2(K, \mu)} \leq C \|f\|_{L^2(K, \mu)}$. Now let $\epsilon > 0$ be given, choose

$$\delta = \begin{cases} \left(\frac{-2 \cdot \ln(1-\epsilon)}{C}\right)^{\frac{1}{2}}, & \text{when } \epsilon \in (0, 1) \\ 1, & \text{when } \epsilon \geq 1. \end{cases}$$

First if $\epsilon \geq 1$ notice that

$$\left| \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2} \|f\|_s^2\right) - \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2} \|0\|_s^2\right) \right| \leq 1 \leq \epsilon, \quad \forall f \in S(K)$$

in which we can choose δ to be any real number larger than 0. Moving on to $\epsilon \in (0, 1)$ we get

$$\begin{aligned}
 \left| \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2}\|f\|_s^2\right) - \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2}\|0\|_s^2\right) \right| &\leq \left| \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2}C\|f\|_{L^2(K,\mu)}\right) - 1 \right| \\
 &= \left| \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2}C \int_K |f|^2 d\mu\right) - 1 \right| \\
 &\leq \left| \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2}C \int_K \delta^2 d\mu\right) - 1 \right| \\
 &= \left| \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2}C \int_K \frac{-2 \cdot \ln(1-\epsilon)}{C} d\mu\right) - 1 \right| \\
 &= \left| \exp(\ln(1-\epsilon)) - 1 \right| \\
 &= \epsilon
 \end{aligned}$$

in the third to last equality using that μ is a probability measure. In which case we have continuity in 0 as desired. $\square$

In the following we want to prove that a fractional Gaussian field has an L^2 density **What is it?** if and only if $s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$, but for this we need white noise.

Definition 3.8: Let $(X, \mathcal{E}, \mu)$ be σ -finite measure space. A white noise based on ν is a random set function W on the sets $A \in \mathcal{E}$ with $\nu(A) < \infty$ such

- (i) $W(A)$ is a $N(0, \mu(A))$ random variable
- (ii) If $A \cap B = \emptyset$ then $W(A)$ and $W(B)$ are independent and $W(A \cup B) = W(A) + W(B)$

Now we will show that such a process exists on $(K, \mathcal{K}, \mu)$ where $\mathcal{K}$ be the Borel σ -algebra on K .

We will think of white noise as a Gaussian process indexed by the set $\mathcal{A} = \{W(A) : A \in \mathcal{K}, \mu(A) < \infty\}$. From definition 3.8, (i) and (ii) it is a mean-zero Gaussian process with covariance matrix

$$\Sigma = (\mathbb{E}[W(A)W(B)])_{W(A), W(B) \in \mathcal{A}} = (\mu(A \cap B))_{W(A), W(B) \in \mathcal{A}}$$

. Now let $A_1, \dots, A_n \in \mathcal{K}$ and $a_1, \dots, a_n$ be real numbers then

$$\sum_{i,j} a_i a_j \Sigma_{i,j} = \sum_{i,j} a_i a_j \int_K \mathbb{1}_{A_i} \cdot \mathbb{1}_{A_j} d\mu = \int_K \left(\sum_i a_i \mathbb{1}_{A_i} \right)^2 d\mu \geq 0$$

Thus Σ is positive definite, so there exists a probability space $(\Omega, \mathcal{F}, p)$ and a mean-zero Gaussian process $\{W(A)\}$ on $(\Omega, \mathcal{F}, p)$ such that W satisfies definition 3.8 (i) and (ii).

This means that for $f \in L^2(K, \mathcal{K}, \mu)$ the integral with respect to W , $W(f) = \int_K f dW$ is a well defined Gaussian random variable. Moreover, the Gaussian measure W gives rise to an isonormal Gaussian family $\{W(f), f \in L^2(K, \mathcal{K}, \mu)\}$ with the covariance function

$$\mathbb{E}[W(f)W(g)] = \int_K fg d\mu$$

In the following we want to define a fractional Brownian field, and we want to do it as the integral of the fractional Riesz kernel defined in definition 2.30, thus we need $G_s(x, \cdot) \in L^2(K, \mu)$.

So let $s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$ we choose s as we do since later we need $\sum \lambda_j^{-s}$. We observe that from proposition 2.31 we have that $G_s(x, \cdot) \in L^2(K, \mu)$. Moreover we have that

$$G_s(x, y) = \frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_K t^{s-1} p_t(x, y) dt = \frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_K t^{s-1} \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} e^{-\lambda_j t} \phi_j(x) \phi_j(y) dt = \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_j^{-s}} \phi_j(x) \phi_j(y).$$

Recalling that $\frac{1}{\Gamma(s)} \int_K t^{s-1} e^{-\lambda_j t} dt = \lambda_j^{-s}$ and eq. (2.7).

Definition 3.9: Let $s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$. The fractional Brownian field with parameter s is defined as

$$\tilde{X}_s(x) = \int_K G_s(x, y) \, dW(y)$$

Note that since $s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$ we can write

$$\tilde{X}_s(x) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda_i^{-s} \phi_i(x) W_i$$

where $W_i = W(\phi_i)$ is an i.i.d sequence of Gaussian random variables with mean zero and variance one.

We will now show that one can construct a fractional Gaussian Field from the fractional Brownian field

Proposition 3.10: Let $s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$. Then the Gaussian random field defined by

$$X_s(f) = \int_K f(x) \tilde{X}_s(x) \, d\mu(x), \quad f \in S(K)$$

has the law of a fractional Gaussian field with parameter s . Moreover, if there exists a Gaussian field $(\tilde{X}_s(x))_{x \in K}$ on K with

$$\mathbb{E} \left[\int_K \tilde{Y}_s(x)^2 \, d\mu(x) \right] < \infty$$

such that the Gaussian field defined by

$$Y_s(f) = \int_K f(x) \tilde{Y}_s(x) \, d\mu(x), \quad f \in S(K)$$

has the law of fractional Gaussian field with parameter s , then $s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$

Proof. Assume $s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$. Then from Fubini's theorem we have for every $f \in S(K)$ that a.s

$$\int_K f(x) \tilde{X}_s(x) \, d\mu(x) = \int_K f(x) \int_K G_s(x, y) W(dy) \, d\mu(x) = \int_K (-\Delta)^{-s} f(y) W(dy)$$

in which case by definition of W we have that $X_s(f) = \int_K f(x) \tilde{X}_s(x) \, d\mu(x)$ is a Gaussian random variable with mean zero and variance

$$\int_K |(-\Delta)^{-s} f(x)|^2 \, d\mu(x).$$

and thus a fractional Gaussian field with parameter s .

Now assume that there is a Gaussian field $(\tilde{X}_s(x))_{x \in K}$ on K with

$$\mathbb{E} \left[\int_K \tilde{Y}_s(x)^2 \, d\mu(x) \right] < \infty$$

such that the Gaussian field defined by

$$Y_s(f) = \int_K f(x) \tilde{Y}_s(x) \, d\mu(x), \quad f \in S(K) \tag{3.1}$$

has the law of fractional Gaussian field with parameter s . Then by spectral decomposition by equation 3.1 we have

$$\tilde{Y}_s(x) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \langle \tilde{Y}_s, \phi_i \rangle \phi_i(x) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} Y_s(\phi_i) \phi_i(x).$$

Note that $(Y(\phi_i))_{i \geq 1}$ is a sequence of independent Gaussian random variables with mean zero and variance $(\lambda_i^{-2s})_{i \geq 1}$ since by definition 3.4 and proposition 2.29 we have that

$$\mathbb{E} [Y_s(\phi_i)] = \mathbb{E} \left[\int_K \phi_i \tilde{Y}_s \, d\mu \right] = \mathbb{E} \left[\int_K \phi_i(x) \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \lambda_j^{-s} \phi_j(x) W_j \, d\mu(x) \right] = \mathbb{E} [W_i] = 0$$

and

$$\mathbb{E} [Y_s(\phi_i)Y_s(\phi_j)] = \int_K (-\Delta)^{-s} \phi_i (-\Delta)^{-s} \phi_j \, d\mu = \frac{1}{(\lambda_j \lambda_i)^s} \int_K \phi_i \phi_j \, d\mu = \frac{1}{(\lambda_j \lambda_i)^s} \delta_{ij}.$$

Since $\mathbb{E} \left[\int_K \tilde{Y}_s(x)^2 \, d\mu(x) \right] < \infty$ we have that

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E} \left[\int_K \tilde{Y}_s(x)^2 \, d\mu(x) \right] &= \mathbb{E} \left[\int_K \left(\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} Y_s(\phi_i) \phi_i(x) \right)^2 \, d\mu(x) \right] \\ &= \mathbb{E} \left[\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} Y_s(\phi_i)^2 \int_K \phi_i(x) \phi_i(x) \, d\mu(x) \right] \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \mathbb{E} [Y_s(\phi_i)^2] \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_i^{-2s}} < \infty \end{aligned}$$

where we use that $\int_K (\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} Y_s(\phi_i) \phi_i(x))^2 \, d\mu(x) = \int_K \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} Y_s(\phi_i)^2 \phi_i(x)^2 \, d\mu(x)$ which stems from the fact that $\int_K \phi_i \phi_j \, d\mu = \delta_{ij}$ and $Y_s(\phi_i)$ is a constant wrt. $\mu(x)$.

We now have that

$$\mathbb{E} \left[\int_K \tilde{Y}_s(x)^2 \, d\mu(x) \right] = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{\lambda_i^{-2s}} < \infty$$

in which case by lemma 2.27 we have that $s > \frac{d_h}{2d_w}$ □

Chapter 4

Main Theorem

Now that we have presented and proved the existence of fractional Gaussian fields X_s on K and discrete fractional Gaussian fields X_s^m on V_m our next task is proving they converge. Therefore in this section our main goal is to show that X_s^m converges in distribution to X_s .

4.1 Preliminary lemmas

In this section we will prove a collection of lemmas that will be needed later.

Lemma 4.1: Let $\{P_t\}_{t \geq 0}$ be the semigroup generated by the Dirichlet Laplacian $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ and $p_t(x, y)$ the heat kernel admitted by $\{P_t\}_{t \geq 0}$. Then if ϕ_i is an orthonormal eigenfunction of $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ then

$$P_t \phi_i(x) = e^{-\lambda_i t} \phi_i(x)$$

Proof. It follows immediately from the calculations:

$$\begin{aligned} P_t \phi_i(x) &= \int_K p_t(x, y) \phi_i(y) \, d\mu(y) = \int_K \left(\sum_{j=1}^{\infty} e^{-\lambda_j t} \phi_j(x) \phi_j(y) \right) \phi_i(y) \, d\mu(y) \\ &= \int_K e^{-\lambda_i t} \phi_i(x) \, d\mu(y) = e^{-\lambda_i t} \phi_i(x) \end{aligned}$$

□

Lemma 4.2: For all $f \in S(K)$ and $t > 0$,

$$\lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) P_t^m f_m(p) = \int_K f(x) P_t f(x) \, d\mu(x)$$

where $f_m = f|_{V_m}$.

Proof. In this proof we wish to use [Kur69, theorem 2.1] so we will check that Δ fulfils the criteria. First there is a bounded linear operator such for all $f \in L^2(K, \mu)$ we have

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \|P_n f\| = \|P_n\|$$

we have that $P_n f = f|_{V_n} = f_n$.

Secondly we note that Δ is the infinitesimal generator of a uniformly continuous semigroup by theorem 2.24.

Next we have that the sequence of $\{\Delta_m\}_{m \geq 0}$ indeed coincides with extended limit defined in [Kur69, page 355], this follows from theorem 2.16 and section 2.3.

Lastly the range $\mathcal{R}(\lambda_0 - \Delta)$ is dense in L^2 by [Bau25, p. 1.1.1].

Thus by [Kur69, theorem 2.1] we have that for all $t \geq 0$

$$\lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \sup_{p \in V_m} |P_t^m f_m(p) - P_t f(p)| = 0. \quad (4.1)$$

So if we now write

$$\frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) P_t^m f_m(p) = \int_{V_m} f_m P_t^m f_m \, d\mu_m.$$

Thus

$$\int_{V_m} f_m P_t^m f_m \, d\mu_m = \int_{V_m} f_m (P_t^m f_m - (P_t f)_m) \, d\mu_m + \int_{V_m} f_m (P_t f)_m \, d\mu_m.$$

The first integral converges to 0 as $m \rightarrow \infty$ because of (4.1). Further by lemma we have $\int_{V_m} f_m (P_t f)_m \, d\mu_m \rightarrow \int_K f P_t f \, d\mu$ as $m \rightarrow \infty$. □

Lemma 4.3: For all $f \in S(K)$ and $s \geq 0$ the following holds

$$\frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) (-\Delta_m)^{-2s} f_m(p) \rightarrow \int_K f(x) (-\Delta)^{-2s} f(x) \, d\mu(x), \quad \text{as } m \rightarrow \infty$$

Proof. For $s = 0$ we find that

$$\begin{aligned} (-\Delta_m)^{-0} f &= \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} \frac{1}{(\lambda_i^m)^0} \phi_i^m(x) \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{y \in V_m} \psi_i^m(y) f(y) \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{N_m} \phi_i^m(x) \int_{V_m} \phi_i^m(y) f(y) \, d\mu_m \\ &= f_m. \end{aligned}$$

Likewise by definition of $(-\Delta)^{-s}$ we find

$$(-\Delta)^{-0} f = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \phi_i \int_K \phi_i(y) f(y) \, d\mu = f.$$

and the lemma follows from corollary 1.16. Now assume $s > 0$ then by Fubini's theorem and the fact that the semi-group is linear we have that

$$\frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) P_t^m f_m(p) (-\Delta_m)^{-2s} f_m(p) = \frac{1}{\Gamma(2s)} \int_0^\infty t^{2s-1} \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) P_t^m f_m(p) \, dt.$$

Now by lemma 4.1 and the definition of f_m we find that

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) P_t^m f_m(p) &= \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) P_t^m \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \langle f_m, \phi_j \rangle \phi_j \\ &= \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \langle f_m, \phi_j \rangle P_t^m \phi_j \\ &= \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \langle f_m, \phi_j \rangle e^{-\lambda_j^m t} \phi_j \\ &\leq e^{-\lambda_1^m t} \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p)^2 \end{aligned}$$

where we can guarantee the inequality for all j since $0 < \lambda_1 < \lambda_2 < \lambda_3 < \dots$

Note that $\sup_m \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p)^2 < \infty$ since $f \in S(K) \subset C(K)$ so f is bounded and $\#V_m < \infty$ for all m . We can now by dominated convergence, Fubini's theorem and lemma 4.2 find that

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) (-\Delta_m)^{-2s} f_m(p) &= \frac{1}{\Gamma(2s)} \int_0^\infty t^{2s-1} t^{2s-1} \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{a_m} \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) P_t^m f_m(p) \, dt \\ &= \frac{1}{\Gamma(2s)} \int_0^\infty t^{2s-1} \int_K f(x) P_t f(x) \, d\mu(x) \, dt \\ &= \frac{1}{\Gamma(2s)} \int_K f(x) \int_0^\infty t^{2s-1} P_t f(x) \, dt \, d\mu(x) \\ &= \int_K f(x) (-\Delta)^{-2s} f(x) \, d\mu(x) \end{aligned}$$

as desired. $\square$

4.2 Main Theorem

With everything in mind we can prove the convergence in distribution of discrete fractional Gaussian fields to fractional Gaussian fields.

Theorem 4.4: Let $s \geq 0$, then X_s^m converges to X_s in distribution in $S'(K)$ when $m \rightarrow \infty$

Proof. First since $S(K)$ is a nuclear space, by [BDW17, Corollary 2.4] it is enough to prove the convergence of the characteristic functional, e.i that for all $f \in S(K)$

$$\mathbb{E} [\exp(itX_s^m(f_m))] \rightarrow \mathbb{E} [\exp(itX_s(f))], \quad \text{as } m \rightarrow \infty$$

where $f_m = f|_{V_m}$. It follows from proposition 3.2 that

$$\mathbb{E} [\exp(itX_s^m(f_m))] = \exp \left(-\frac{1}{2} t^2 \mathbb{E} [(X_s^m(f_m))^2] \right) = \exp \left(-\frac{1}{2a_m} t^2 \sum_{p \in V_m} f_m(p) (-\Delta_m)^{-2s} f_m(p) \right)$$

Likewise we find that via definition 3.4 we get that

$$\mathbb{E} [\exp(itX_s(f))] = \exp \left(-\frac{1}{2} t^2 \mathbb{E} [(X_s(f))^2] \right) = \exp \left(-\frac{1}{2} t^2 \int_K f(-\Delta)^{-2s} f \, d\mu \right).$$

Where we notice that from corollary 2.36

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E} [(X_s(f))^2] &= \int_K (-\Delta)^s f (-\Delta)^s f \, d\mu \\ &= \int_K \int_K f(p) f(q) G_{2s}(p, q) \, d\mu(p) \, d\mu(q) \\ &= \int_K f(-\Delta)^{-2s} f \, d\mu. \end{aligned}$$

The proof now follows from lemma 4.3. $\square$

4.3 Simulations

As a part of this thesis we have created and simulated a discrete fractional Gaussian field on the Vicsek set V_m . The precise field we have constructed was the one given in example 3.3. These simulation have had a varying rate of success, as we have been able to simulate $X_s^m(x) = \sum \lambda_j \phi_j$ for a reasonable set of s -values, but we have hit a bottleneck in the fact that we are not able to simulate X_s^m for $m \geq 7$. The reason for this bottleneck lies in remark 2.2.

As stated in the remark for any function $f : V_m \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ we can define a matrix L such that

$$L_m F = \begin{pmatrix} \Delta_m f(x_1) \\ \vdots \\ \Delta_m f(x_{N_m}) \end{pmatrix}, \quad \text{where } F = \begin{pmatrix} f(x_1) \\ \vdots \\ f(x_{N_m}) \end{pmatrix}.$$

It is precisely from this matrix L_m we compute the eigenvalues and eigenfunctions of $-\Delta_m$. One shall now note that the amount of points in V_m is $5^m \cdot 4 + 1$ so as m grows this number explodes (see ??), and there is not any smart way to construct the matrix L_m ¹. Thus the method of constructing the matrix L_m was simply by constructing the Vicsek set V_m and manually checking each point for neighbours.

m	$\#V_m$
1	21
2	101
3	501
4	2501
5	12501
6	62501
7	312501
10	39062501
20	$3.81 \cdot 10^{14}$

Table 4.1: Points in V_m

As we see from the table, the values explode in size as m grows. It is therefore really slow having to check each point. Further the matrix L_m that we construct becomes very large, very fast. Since it needs to hold every permutation of points, that means L_m is a $5^m \cdot 4 + 1 \times 5^m \cdot 4 + 1$ matrix. It does have the property that it is a sparse matrix, since there is at most five entries in every column. But for $m = 9$ this matrix still fills well over 1 terrabyte in memory.

Having explained the limitations of the simulation, we will quickly delve into the code that generates the simulations. The code will be explained mathematically for clarity, but the full code can be found at: <https://gitfront.io/r/Cataclisem/CxGoTRPqvjoM/GaussianFieldsThesis/>.

Construction of the Vicsek set for simulation

The construction is done by first generating the first "plus" $V_0 = \{p_0, p_1, p_2, p_3, p_4\}$ $p_0 = (0, 0)$ where $p_0 = (0, 0), p_1 = (\xi, 0), p_2 = (0, -\xi), p_3 = (-\xi, 0)$ and $p_4 = (0, \xi)$ for some $\xi > 0$. Then going from V_0 to V_1 we find the endpoints (Tips of the plus) of V_0 and then just add V_0 to it. Formally written out we have:

Let $V_m^{(0)}$ be the endpoints after iteration m and V_m be the points of the Vicsek set after iteration m , the we define a recursive function so

$$V_m = \left\{ y + 2 \cdot x : x \in V_{m-1}, y \in V_{m-1}^{(0)} \right\}, \quad \text{and} \quad V_m^{(0)} = \left\{ 3y : y \in V_{m-1}^{(0)} \right\}.$$

One will recall from definition 3.1 that a discrete fractional Gaussian field is a Gaussian vector index by V_m , since the discrete Laplacian depends on the points being the same places. Thus if we were to compare two different discrete fields we need to make sure the points are in the same order in the list in python. Luckily we can use the `set` function in python. Since the `set` function hashes each point, it will put the point in a random place in the set, but it will put the point in the same spot every time, given that ξ is the same each time.

The next step is finding all the neighbours of each point. As stated before there we have found no good way to find the neighbours thus this step just iterates over every point. We are going to abuse the symmetry and the fact that the way we construct the Vicsek set outwards. This then means that we have

¹That we have found while researching [Formulation of this?](#)

all points where $x \underset{m}{\sim} y$ in V_m are exactly $|x - y| = \xi$ from each other. Let $V_{m,p}$ denote the neighbours of a point p , thus we have

$$V_{m,p} = \left\{ x + \xi v \in V_m : x \in V_m, v \in \left\{ \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix} \right\} \right\}$$

so we actually just add ξ in every direction and see if the point is contained in V_m and thus we find the neighbours. In python, we collect each point along with its neighbours in a dictionary. This is both because it gives us a nice structure to work with, but also lets us do quick lookups since dictionaries in python are hash maps. Thus while we add each point and its neighbours to the dictionary we give each point a name and that is simply x_i where i denotes its place in the set. So each dictionary entry has the following information: $\left\{ \text{name: } x_i, \text{Neighbours: } \{(x_\alpha, y_\alpha), \dots\}, \text{coordinate: } (x_i, y_i) \right\}$

To construct the discrete Laplacian matrix we do exactly as in remark 2.2. So we now have the construction of the Vicsek set, the neighbours of each point and the discrete Laplacian, so we move on to generating the eigenfunctions and eigenvalues.

All the construction mentioned above can be found in `VicsekSet.py`.

Eigenvalues and eigenfunctions

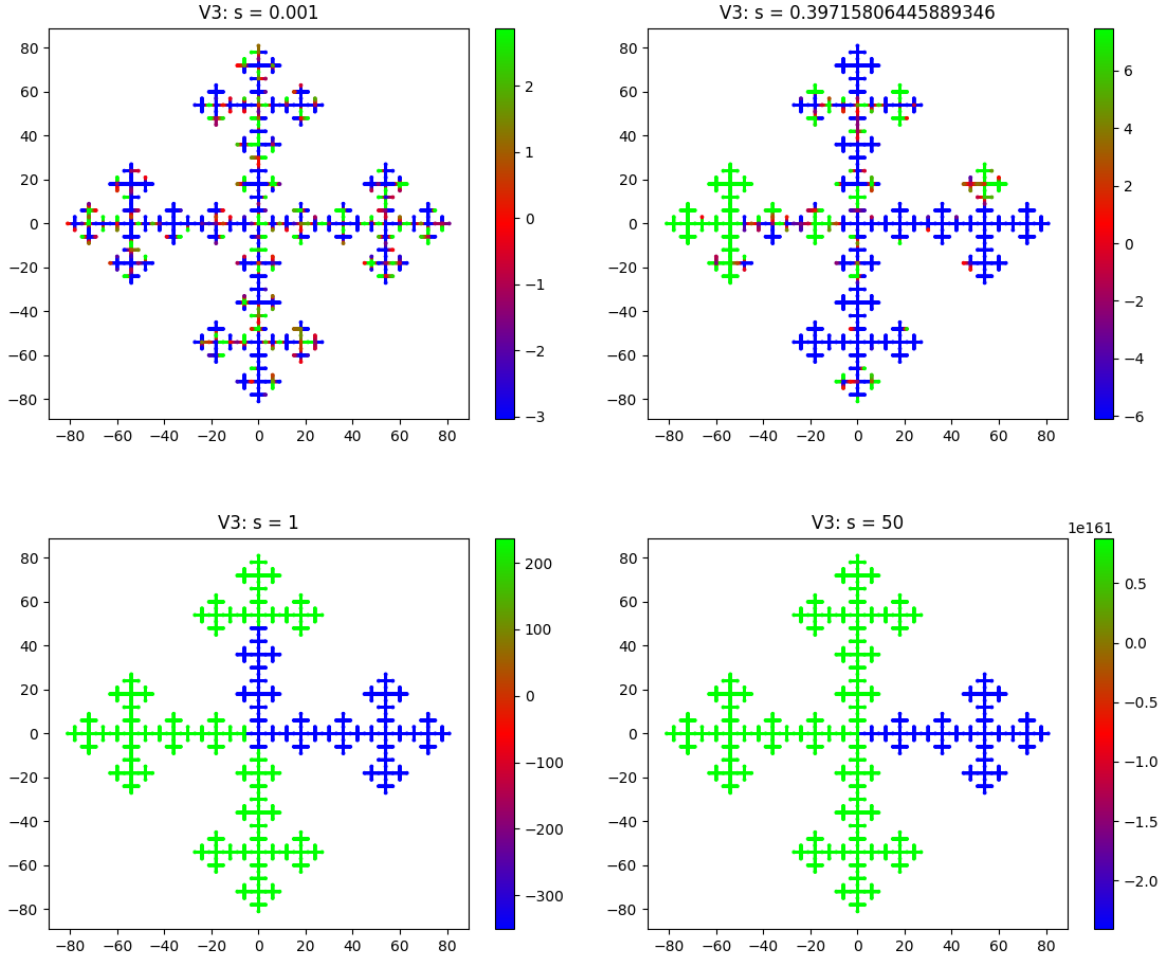
The way we find eigenvalues is through the `np.linalg.eigh` function, where `np` stands for numpy. The function is for finding eigenvalues and eigenvectors of real symmetric matrices. Most of the eigenvalue finding algorithms have a runtime of $O(n^2)$ at best, where n is the amount of rows in the matrix. And $5^m \cdot 4 + 1$ is a number that grows fast as m increases, thus $(5^m \cdot 4 + 1)^2$ grows even faster and thus making the algorithm taking very long as m increases.

The code we are describing can be found in `simulations.py` line 95-101 and line 114-133. Now the function `np.linalg.eigh` gives us a vector of eigenvalues v_{eig} and a matrix where each column is an eigenvector M_{eig} , having sizes $5^m \cdot 4 + 1 \times 1$ and $5^m \cdot 4 + 1 \times 5^m \cdot 4 + 1$ respectively. Now the matrix of eigenvectors are actually also our eigenfunctions, since $-\Delta_m(M_{\text{eig}})_{i,\cdot} = (v_{\text{eig}})_i \cdot (M_{\text{eig}})_{i,\cdot}$, so $-\Delta_m(M_{\text{eig}})_{i,j} = (v_{\text{eig}})_i \cdot (M_{\text{eig}})_{i,j} = \phi_i(x_j)$ thus we have both our eigenvalues and functions.

And calculating the discrete field in each point is the exact same in example 3.3, one thing of note is that the white noise W_i is generated by `np.random.standard_normal`. To generate the heat maps we plot our points with `matplotlib` and lay in a colorbar where the colour value corresponds to the values from $X_s^m(x)$ for $x \in V_m$.

The initial goal of the simulations

The point of the simulations we're of course to show the convergence of X_s^m to $\widetilde{X}_s$ in distribution, but as we have not been able to simulate much over $m \geq 7$ we don't really see any convergence in distribution. What we instead can see is the variance in the fields decreases as s increases.



These have each been simulated with their own white noise and as one can see from the values on the colorbar, we have that the fields decrease in variance as s increases. While this is not hard to see from the definition of X_s^m what is interesting is the variance when s is small. If we look at $s = 0.001$, we find that there are many more red spots, meaning there are more transitions between values.

If one looks at the figure with $s = 50$ it is very much just green and blue. So they have their extreme values, but looking at the colorbar we see that the reason that they are some different is because the difference in their values is about 10^{161} so the field has almost converged to a single value. This again makes sense looking at X_s^m as the value $(\lambda_j^m)^{-s}$ dominates each term.

Insert Sierpinski Triangles see the same holds

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